

BY SIR OTONDE MICHAEL AWITI



KENYATTA UNIVERSITY

**INSTITUTE OF OPEN LEARNING AND
VIRTUAL LEARNING**

**DEPARTMENT OF COMMUNICATION
SKILLS UCU 110:
COMMUNICATION SKILLS**

**SIMON M. RUKANGU
LOIS M. WAMBUA
DORIS K. NJOKA
BEATRICE MURILA
PATRICK E. JUMBA
SOPHIA M. NDETHIU**

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INTRODUCTION

The purpose of this course is to help you undertake all your university courses efficiently and effectively. As a university scholar, you are required to master a great deal of information especially on issues pertaining to your specific areas of study. Your ability to understand, apply, analyse, synthesise and evaluate the information and share it with others will determine how knowledgeable you will be on the specific subjects that you are studying. It will also improve your general knowledge and help you perform the academic tasks that your lecturers and professors will require of you according to expectations.

People gain information through conscious experience and interaction with others. At the university, interacting with others involves: Listening to lectures and discussions; participating in discussions – speaking to express your ideas and feelings especially in tutorials, reading books, journals, thesis, newspapers, reference books and other written materials on the subjects you are studying or interested in; this way you interact with the writers or authors of those materials. You also interact with others when you write academic papers, projects and even thesis to communicate your own ideas and findings to others in a written form. Thus knowledge is gained through a communication process that entails mastery of certain communication skills; Listening and speaking reading and writing and ability to access information from a library (Library Skills) and from other sources (such as internet) efficiently. This module is aimed at helping you to acquire skills to perform the above activities effectively.

This module is divided into six lectures or units. Each lecture is abased on the skills to be learnt in it. You start with the lecture on general communication that introduces you to communication theory. It is followed by listening and speaking that helps you know how to develop your listening and oral skills for effective verbal and non-verbal communication. The

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reading skills section helps you to develop reading strategies that will enable you extract required information from written texts. The unit on writing helps you know how to organise and present information that you have gathered in a written form and use a writing style that you will enable you communicate the information to others effectively. The library skills unit teaches you how materials in a library are labelled for easy identification (cataloguing) and are arranged or organised, and how you can access them efficiently. Finally, there is a unit on general study skills. This unit gives you general information on how to utilize all study resources at your disposal which include time, money, and the human resource including your own mind and that of the other students. It also gives you advice on how to prepare for and take examinations. This in our opinion is the unit that you should look at first before the other units.

Each of the lectures discussed above is divided into lessons. The objectives for each lesson are given before you begin the lesson. Read each set of objectives carefully to ensure that you can check whether you have attained them by the end of the lesson. Do note that the lessons try to put together related content and not so much to define the amount of time to be spent on the content. How long you take on a given units is really a matter of your own decision.

At the end of each lesson, there is an activity or exercise designed to help you practice the skill that you will have learnt and test your understanding/learning of the foregoing lesson.

GENERAL OBJECTIVES

While studying this module, the following objectives should be put in mind:

The student should be able to:

1. Develop strong communication skills for success in his/her academic pursuit as well as in every functional area of life.
2. Develop and apply various communication techniques through information analysis, interpretation, clear thinking, organization, problem-solving and library research.
3. Develop a short-term and long-term plan for improving communication effectiveness in reading, speaking, listening and also writing academic papers and presenting them at academic and other meetings.
4. Develop independent learning skills while at the same time learning to work effectively with others in a group
5. Become his/her own time manager and realize that good results arise from effective utilization of time and other available resources.
6. Learn that university education encourages student autonomy as opposed to teacher dependency so that the teacher should only be seen as a facilitator or guide to learning.
7. Appreciate that a positive attitude to life is critical for success in all areas of life and this applies as well for effective study.
8. Acquire general learning and critical thinking skills, which should creatively be applied when learning all other subjects in the University.

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9. Develop self-confidence as well as a critical approach to issues whether at a personal or social level.

1.0 LESSON 1: COMMUNICATION THEORY

1.1 INTRODUCTION

In this lesson, we are going to introduce you to the theory of communication. As a human being, you have to communicate. Communication helps you to relate effectively with other human beings. Human beings depend on their communication skills to help them meet their needs, find happiness and attain personal fulfillment. From the time we are born to the time we die, we get involved in many types of communication. The challenge is to try and communicate as effectively as possible and to build your communication skills so that communication works for you and not against you. Your knowledge of communication theory will help you understand better the different ways of communicating first as a human being and secondly as a university student studying for a degree.

OBJECTIVES



By the end of this lesson, you should be able to:

1. Define communication.
2. List and explain the elements of communication.
3. Describe representative models of the communication process.
4. Draw your own model of the communication process.
5. List the functions of communication.

1.2 DEFINITION OF COMMUNICATION

Different people have defined communication variously. Gamble and Gamble (1993) define communication as a desirable or accidental transfer of meaning. The Oxford Dictionary defines communication as 'the transfer or conveying of meaning.' Wilber Schramm defines communication as a mechanism through which human relations exist and develop or sharing of experience on basis of commonness.

Communication is more than mere transferring of ideas or thoughts. It is not a static act as some definitions suggest but it is a dynamic process of action and interaction towards

a desired goal. Recent definitions look at communication as a process of sharing or exchange of ideas, information, knowledge, attitude or feeling among two or more persons through certain signs, symbols and behaviour.

1.3 ELEMENTS OF COMMUNICATION

In every act or encounter of communication, there are certain common elements that together help define the communication process. If you understand these elements, they will help you to develop your own communication abilities.

Communication involves the following elements:

1.3.1 Source

This refers to the communicator or originator of a message. This person is also called the sender. The sender at times becomes the receiver of a message.

1.3.2 Content

This refers to place and time communication takes place in some context or setting. The setting or environment influences the way you act towards others or determines the nature of communication encounter you share with them. For example, you can change your posture, manner of speaking or attire due to environment.

1.3.3 Message

In every communication, we all send and receive both verbal and non-verbal messages. A message is the content of a communication act.

1.3.4 Channel

This refers to the medium of transmission like, voice and radio. Messages may be sent and received through both verbal and non-verbal channels. In effect, we are multi-channel communicators. For effective communication, use more than one channel at any given time.

1.3.5 Receiver

One who receives and comprehends the message. A receiver at times in communication becomes a source or sender.

1.3.6 Feedback

When we communicate with one or more persons, we also receive information in return. Verbal or non-verbal cues that we perceive in reaction to our communication are feedback. Feedback tells us how we are progressing. Feedback can be positive or negative.

1.3.7 Barriers

Anything that interferes or distorts our ability to send or receive messages is called a barrier. It could be created by physical state, psychological state, intellectual ability and environment. Barriers to effective communication can therefore be grouped as follows:

- Physical, for example, size of room, position or location, gestures of speaker in case of verbal communication.
- Psychological, for example predisposition of receiver, attitude to subject, speaker, race, education level.
- Intellectual ability – level of education, background and knowledge on the subject.
- Physiological state, for example, sickness, hungry, tired.
- Linguistic – Ability of the receiver of the communication to understand words and expressions used in the communication.

1.4 MODELS OF COMMUNICATION

In order to communicate effectively, knowledge of the dynamics underlying the communication process is essential. One way to analyze communication is to present it in the form of a 'model.' A model is a picture of human communication that effectively tells at a glance how it works.

A model is defined as an abstracted representation of a reality. A good model comes as close to reality as possible and it discusses and explains the reality as clearly as possible.

1.4.1 The Process of Communication

The process of communication comprises a sender who has a message he / she transmits through some means (channel) to a receiver who responds. This process can be explained pictorially in form of a model as below:

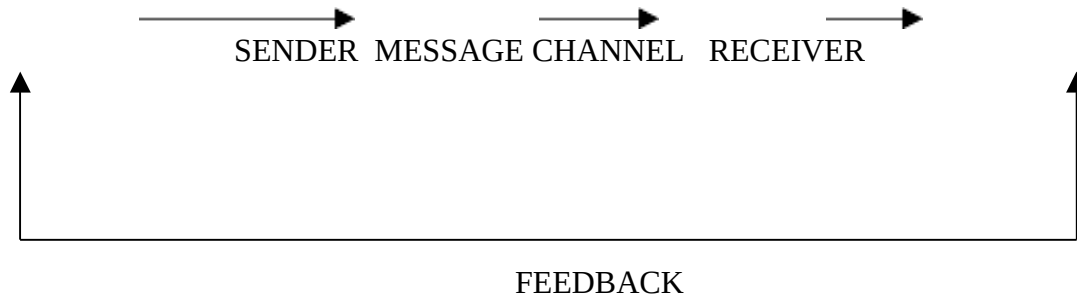


Diagram I – A simple model of communication process

In the model, it is clear that in a communication process, there has to be a sender whose intention is to communicate a message. What to convey is his / her thinking process, how to communicate the message is his / her choice of right means or channel and whom to convey the message is his / her job to decide. The sender needs to know the receiver's response to the message, whether or not it is being received as intended. Then only can the sender proceed further with the next act of communication and in this way it goes on and on.

1.4.2 Osgood's Model

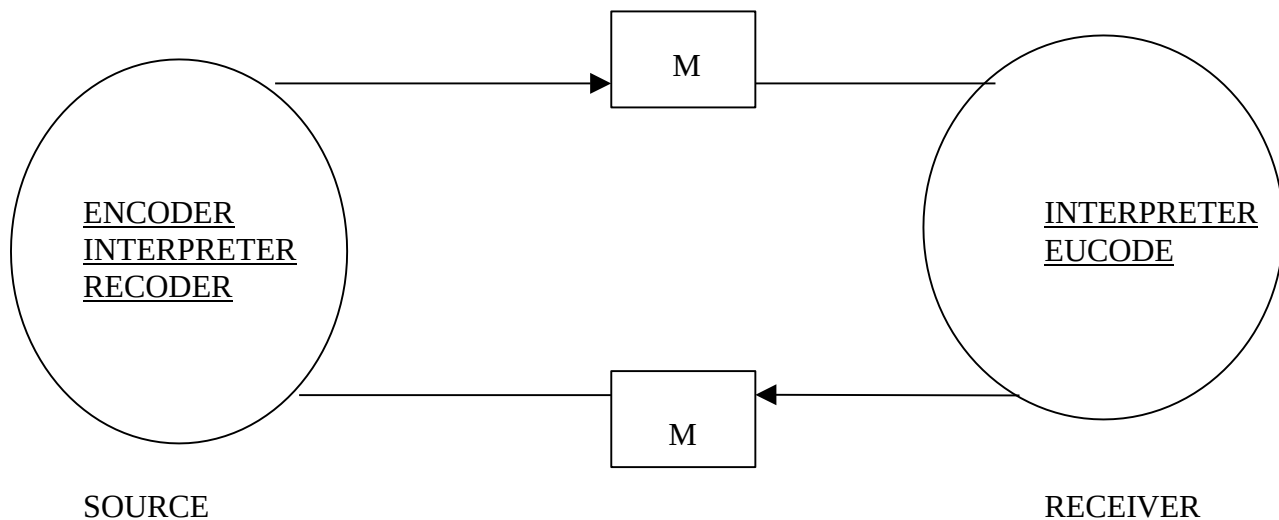


Diagram 2 – Osgood's Model

- Osgood describes communication as a dynamic process in the above model.

- A communication event begins with receiving stimuli.
- Each participant in the communication process sends as well as receives messages and as such encodes, decodes and interprets messages.
- Communication is thus dynamic because there is an interactive relationship between the source and the receiver, where a person may be a source one moment and a receiver the next and again a source the following moment. This is true in interpersonal communication.

1.4.3 Schramm's Model

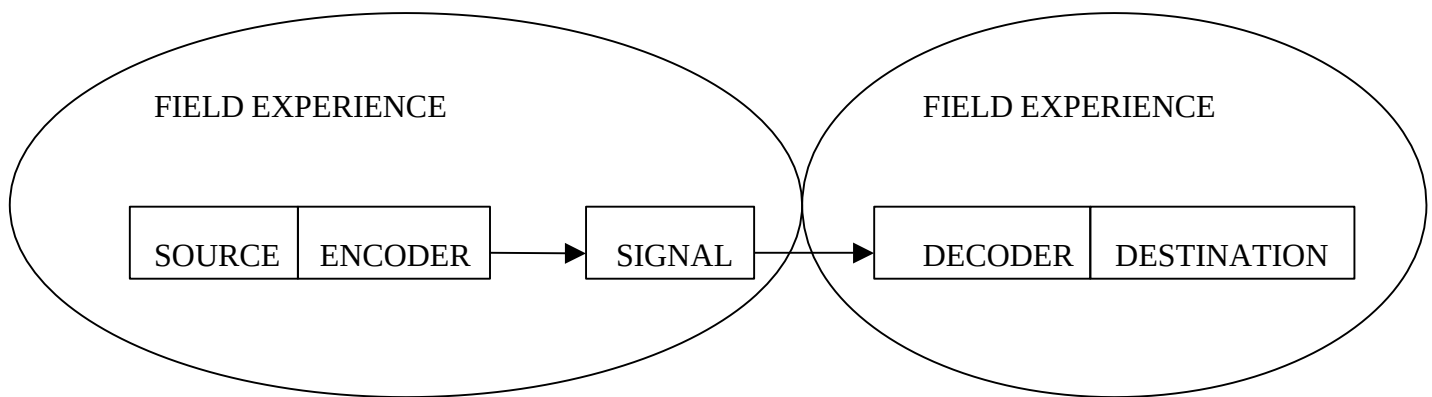


Diagram 3 – Schramm's Model

- Schramm has visualized communication essentially as a process of sharing experience and shaping and reshaping of experience.
- The circles indicate the accumulated experience of the two individuals communicating.
- The source can encode and the destination can decode only in terms of experience each has had. If the circles have a large area in common, then communication is easy. If the circles do not meet, there has been no common experience and then communication is impossible.

The three diagrams above have helped illustrate what we mean by communication models.

1.5 FUNCTIONS OF COMMUNICATION

1.5.1 Understanding And Insight

We depend on communication to develop self-awareness. Communication helps us in self-other understanding. In other words, it makes us to have an insight into ourselves and into others.

1.5.2 Meaningful Relationships

It is through communication contacts that human beings basic physical and social needs are met. Psychology tells us that you need other people just as you need water, food and shelter. If you are cut from human contact, you become disoriented and maladjusted. Communication offers us the chance to satisfy our needs for inclusion, control and affection.

1.5.3 Influence And Persuasion

In every communication, people have ample chances to influence each other subtly and overtly. We spend much time trying to persuade one another to think as we think, do what we do, like what we like.

ACTIVITIES



1. What are the common symbols and signs that we use in interpersonal communication?
2. Identify five contexts in which you get involved in interpersonal communication in a given day. How do you pass message(s) to other(s) in each context?
3. What is a model of the communication process?
4. Draw your own model of the communication process to demonstrate your understanding of communication.
5. Identify an important message you want to communicate to someone within the next few days. Analyze the following:
 - (a) How you will encode the message.
 - (b) What channel(s) you will use to deliver the message.
 - (c) What feedback you might get.
 - (d) How barriers could interfere at different points in the process.
6. What are the functions of communication?

1.6 SUMMARY



In this lesson, we have defined communication as a process of sharing or exchange of ideas, information, knowledge, attitude or feeling among two or more persons through certain signs, symbols and behaviour. Communication is a process. The elements in the communication process are source, context, message, channel, receive, feedback and barriers. A model is defined as a pictorial representation of the communication process. Osgood's and Schramm's communication models are presented for comparison. Finally, we looked at the functions of communication.

1.7 FURTHER READING

1. Berlo, David, K. The Process of Communication: An Introduction to Theory and Practice, San Francisco: Reinhart Press, 1960.

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2.0 LESSON 2: LISTENING AND ORAL PRESENTATION SKILLS

2.1 INTRODUCTION

In this section we shall look at the skills of listening and oral presentation. These, like many others you will learn, are very important to the success of all human interactions. It will require that you spend sufficient time in practicing the skills, because that is the best way to acquire any skill.

OBJECTIVES



By the end of this lesson, you should be able to:

A. Listening Skills

1. Define listening.
2. Differentiate between listening and hearing.
3. Identify the different levels of listening.
4. Identify barriers to effective listening.
5. Take notes from a listening event.

B .Oral presentation

1. Define public speaking.
2. Identify the characteristics of effective public speakers.
3. List the steps taken in preparing a speech.
4. Conduct a thorough audience analysis.
5. Explain how occasion influences speech preparation.
6. Prepare a speech outline.
7. Write effective speech introductions and conclusions.

2.2 LISTENING SKILLS

2.2.1 Definitions

There are many definitions of listening. The following are some examples:

1. Listening is the active process of receiving aural stimuli (De Vito, 1987:26).
2. Listening is a voluntary process that goes beyond simply reacting to sounds and includes understanding, analysing, evaluating, and responding.
3. Listening is an active, deliberate, selective process by which a message is received, critically interpreted, and acted upon by a purposeful listener.

2.2.2 Difference Between Listening and Hearing

Unlike listening, hearing is a passive, automatic process; it is simply the act of perceiving sounds.

Listening is more than just part of spoken communication. It involves both verbal and non-verbal messages. Response to the presentation is influenced by a variety of factors such as the presenter's physical mannerisms (gestures, movement or lack of it, direct gaze or lack of it, etc), dress, cultural background; our own expectations; the venue, etc. Listening is very vital to every human interaction, may it be in academic or social settings. Effective listening takes time and effort; it is at times very difficult, but the returns mostly justify the efforts. Good listening in professions, for example, leads to provision of better services. Poor listening, on the other hand can be disastrous and costly. Consider the following statements:

“Poor listening occurs every day and results in the loss of jobs, profit, relationships, or even life...Skillful listening will improve your chances for personal and professional success” (O’Hair, Friedrich, and Shaver, 1998:105).

ACTIVITY 2(A)

Give examples of how each of the following can affect services in the listed professions:

- a. Good listening
- b. Poor listening:

Lawyers

1.	
2	

Doctors

1	
2	

Failing to listen effectively can lead result to embarrassing moments.

ACTIVITY 2(B)



Discuss TWO occasions when you or someone you know ended up losing his/her face for not listening properly.

As the definitions above show, listening is voluntary; it is something one consciously chooses to do. Active listening is hard work because it requires concentration on what the lecturer or speaker is saying. It calls for discipline and practice. For you to listen effectively, you must consciously deal with anything that might interfere with your understanding. This could be external or internal.

2.2.3 Levels of Listening

You will find that you listen with varying levels of concentration depending on, among others, the purpose of listening, your physical and psychological state, your background knowledge, and the content of the speech or lecture. Listening is, therefore, said to be more than just a single, simple activity.

Levels of Listening

Level of Listening

Definition

Reception

Hearing without attending to sounds or noises around you. This could happen in the classroom or lecture if you tune the speaker out

Attention Listening passively with no effort to relate to or understand what is said. Many people, for example, love listening to certain singers, although they may not understand the words.

Definition Focusing briefly on something and then tuning out. This is the lowest level of active listening, where isolated facts and details are attended to without any apparent organisational plan. This happens when certain words or concepts capture your attention. For example, different discussion groups may be placed in close proximity in a hall. All of a sudden you hear a contributor from another group mention a word you have been struggling to remember. You quickly tune in and out again to concentrate on what is going on in your group.

Integration Relating new information to old learning. E.g. Learning a new method of solving a mathematical problem.

Interpretation	Synthesizing information or bringing it together and putting it into your own words. It also involves figuring out how the information affects what you do as an employee, student, individual, etc. (e.g. information about the reorganisation of your department).
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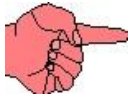
Implication	Drawing conclusions from the information.
-------------	---

Application	Applying information to personal experiences. E.g. Listening to a lecture on how to write and present a speech and using the information the next time you have a speaking assignment.
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Evaluation	Judging information in terms of accuracy and relevance to your circumstances.
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Adapted from: Theodore O. Knight. *Study Strategies For Careers*. Homewood, Il. : Irwin, 1993: 6.

NOTE



In one listening event you may engage in more than one level of listening.

2.2.4 Barriers to Effective Listening

You may find that your listening is hampered by both internal and external factors. The following are some examples of barriers to effective listening and their possible solutions.

Barriers

Possible Solution

Unfamiliarity with the subject under One way of dealing with this is to do discussion prior preparation for the listening activity. In a classroom situation, for example, you can read ahead of the lecture so that you are familiar with the material. This will help you to formulate questions, which you expect the lecturer to answer during the lecture. Communication researchers have found out that an unprepared listener can recall only 50% of a 10-minute lecture if tested immediately after.

Prejudices and bias (This may be based on culture, gender, religion, ethnic background, etc).

Separate the message from the speaker and concentrate on the message.

Inattention Make a conscious decision to fight against all opportunities to lose concentration. Deliberately postpone any personal or other problem until after the lecture or presentation.

2.5. NOTE-TAKING

OBJECTIVES

At the end of this lesson, you should be able to:

1. Use abbreviations, symbols, and acronyms.
2. Make notes that show a relative importance of ideas.
3. Use mind maps and other diagrammatic representations of ideas.

One of the reasons why we listen is to acquire information. Research has shown that we can lose up to 80% of the content is forgotten within two weeks if no effort is made to record or to remember the material. This stresses the importance of note-taking during a listening session.

Remember, however, not to make a copy of the speaker's material because:

- (a) It is not possible – You cannot match the speaker's speed.
- (b) It is not necessary – Record only what will enable you to recall everything of significance the speaker says.

Note taking helps you to remember both what you heard and what you understood. It is learning about the subject and not simply recording all that the speaker says. By taking notes you are able to pay closer attention to and become more familiar with the new information.

2.6 GUIDELINES TO NOTE-MAKING

Since it is impossible to record every word it is important for you to develop economical methods of putting the information you require down.

- (a) Date the page.
- (b) Record any other pertinent information you might need
 - i. Speaker's name.
 - ii. Title of the lecture/speech.
 - iii. Venue.
 - iv. Time, etc.

- (c) Use symbols

E.g.	=	equals	♀	female(s)
<	less than	♂	male(s)	
#	number	☀	sunny weather/bright	
>	greater than/more than	←	is caused by	

		→	leads
↑	rise		means/causes/results
↓	fall/decline	≈	to approximately

d) Use Abbreviations

E.G.	inf.	Information	e.g	example
	P	page	b/ground	background
	Pp	pages	dep't	department
	Cf	compare	sc	science

e) Use acronyms (Names formed from the first letters or syllables of other words.

E.G .

AGOA	African Growth and opportunity Act
EMU	Efficiency Monitoring Unit
IGAD	Intergovernmental Aid and Development
ILRI	International Livestock Research Institute
KEMRI	Kenya Medical Research Institute
KICOMI	Kisumu Cotton Mills
KNUT	Kenya National Union of Teachers
KUPPET	Kenya Union of Post Primary Teachers
Mountex	Mount Kenya Textiles
WAC	World Agro forestry Centre
VIWAA	Visual Inspection With Acetic Acid [A cheap cervical examination costing Ksh.25 for detecting cervical cancer](Daily Nation, Horizon-p 23 Arthur Okwenda)

2.7 FORMATS

There are many note-taking formats. Use the form that will help you to review your notes easily. You will need to consider the nature of the content. A note format for Mathematics will not be the same as that one for History, Biology, etc. Biology, for example may call for diagrams; Geography for maps, charts, graphs, etc.

NB: Think of how the presenter has ordered the material. A good lecture or speech has three distinct parts: the introduction, the body, and the conclusion. Listen to the main points for discussion, which are usually given in the introduction. The body then develops them while the conclusion (among other functions) sums them up and points forward to the next step.

2.7.1 Letter and Numeral Format

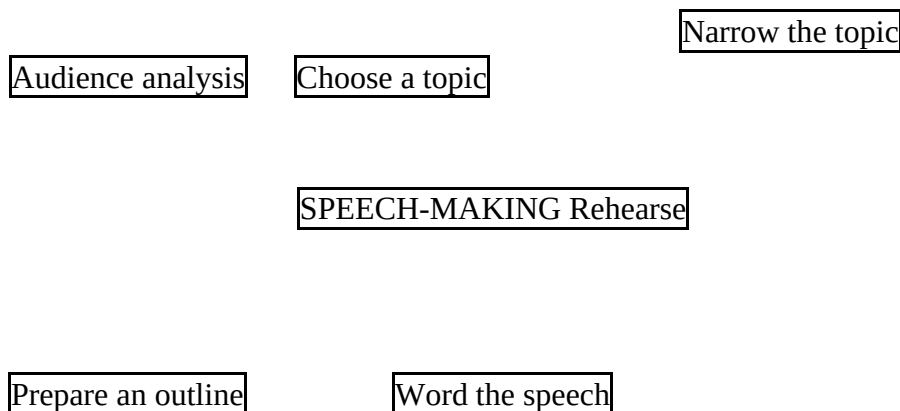
In this format, Arabic numerals and Roman numbers are used.

I Main idea

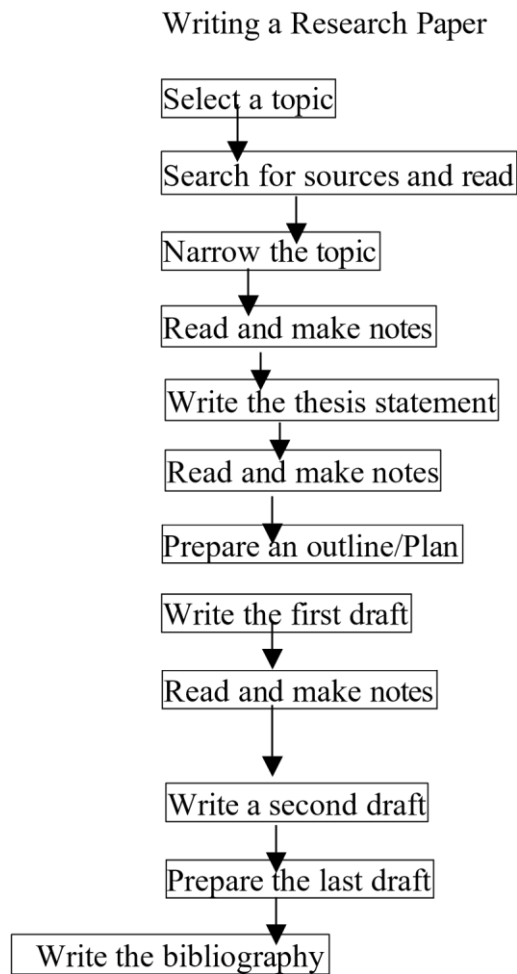
- A. Subordinate idea 1. Elaboration of A.
 - 2. Elaboration of A
- B. Subordinate idea
 - 1. Elaboration of B.
 - 2. Elaboration of B.

II Main idea ,etc.

2.7.2 Clustering/Mind Maps, Etc.



2.7.3 Flow Chart



2.8 WHEN NOT TO TAKE NOTES

1. When the speaker tells you not to write.
2. When the speaker hands out an outline, notes, or other material and then reads directly from the handout. In this case you can annotate the handout for any extra details.
3. When it is very clear that what is being said is out of topic. For example, a poor presenter may bring in unrelated issues especially if there is no clear plan or organisation. At other times the speaker may notice lack of concentration among some listeners. He/she then cracks a joke to re-establish the listening mood.

2.9 ORAL SKILLS: PUBLIC SPEAKING

2.9.1 Characteristics of Good Speakers

Effective speakers:

1. Have insight, i.e. they know their strengths and weaknesses.
2. Know their audience.
3. Know why they are speaking and what they hope to achieve.
4. Always practice or do a dry run of their speeches.
5. Take the speech as if it was a performance. They know they have to work hard to keep their listeners interested in what they have to say.
6. Make a post- speech evaluation or critique their presentations. They believe this will feed into the next speech and lead to a better performance.

2.9.2 Stages

Consider the following stages for preparing a good speech.

1. Topic selection (Sometimes the topic is prescribed. Even then it is important.
2. To consider whether it is specific and narrow enough to be handled in the time available).
3. Topic development.
4. Presentation.
5. Post-presentation analysis.

When preparing a presentation, remember to consider all the steps for every presentation because occasions, audiences, topics, time, etc will be different.

2.9.3 Researching the Audience

As Iacocca says, “*There is no way around it – you have to do your homework. A speaker may be very well informed, but if he hasn’t thought out exactly what he wants to say today, to this audience, [Emphasis added] he has no business taking up people’s valuable time*”

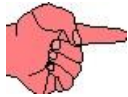
(Gamble and Gamble, 1993:304).

There are many ways of obtaining information about your prospective audience:

1. You can ask the speech programme coordinator to give you relevant information.

2. If you are to address members of a certain organisation you may get material from their public relations officer or read their literature such as newsletters, news releases, etc.
3. Do original research – Discuss with members of the potential audience.

NOTE:



Audience demographics (information about an audience) need to be considered before planning the speech. You can prepare a checklist such as the following to help you as you prepare.

Audience Demographics

Average age of the audience members _____

Sex _____

Marital status _____

Religious affiliations _____

Cultural background _____

Education _____

Occupation _____

Additional relevant information _____

Adapted from: Gamble and Gamble, 1993:315.

2.9.4 Speaking to Familiar Audiences

Most of the times you will be addressing familiar audiences, such as: (a)
A class of students

(b) Colleagues or workmates

(c) Group members, etc

Here, too, you will be required to do an analysis of your audience to establish “any identifiable goals, fears, frustrations, loves, or hates” that could help you shape your speech. be tied in” in your preparation. Your relationship with them will be of particular interest here: are you just a member or a leader? The head of a section or just one of them?

ACTIVITY 2(C)



Give FIVE reasons why you would not normally give a group of children the same presentations as the one you would deliver to an adult audience.

2.10 THE SPEECH OCCASION

Analysing the occasion will help in preparing your speech in various ways. For, example, knowing the length of the presentation can help you so that you will not run over or under the speech limit. The former is a more common problem among many speakers.

A checklist: The Speech Occasion

Date of the presentation _____

Length of the presentation _____ Venue/Location

Nature of the occasion _____

Size of the audience _____

Any other relevant detail _____

ACTIVITY 2 (D)



Briefly explain how THREE of the above can influence your speech preparation and presentation.

2.11 CHOOSING THE TOPIC

Always see every subject through the eyes of your listeners. As seen earlier, it is important to tailor every topic to suit your particular audience. This should be reflected in the topic wording, among other things.

Use the following criteria:

- | | |
|-----------------------------|---|
| a. Apparent worth | is it important to you and to your audience? |
| b. Appropriateness | To your personal interests, the audience, and the occasion. |
| c. Availability of material | Do not embark on a topic if researching the content will be a problem no matter how interesting it is to you. |

Narrowing The Topic

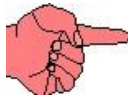
Begin with a general topic then divide it up into smaller units, i.e. the universe →the galaxy →the star

The topic ladder:

Poverty eradication	Broader
Poverty eradication in third world countries	Middle level
Poverty eradication In Kenya	Narrower

Formulate A Purpose Statement, An Objective, And A Thesis

NOTE :



1. A thesis divides the topic into its major components.
2. The purpose statement is stated as an infinitive.

Examples

Purpose statement: To inform the audience about the economic steps the government is taking in eradicating poverty.

Thesis: The government has instituted various economic measures as a way of eradicating poverty.

2.12 ORGANISING YOUR IDEAS

Why organise? It will keep confusion to a minimum and facilitate communication between you and your audience. Try to build in an amount of repetition because the audience have no way of rewinding the message the way they do it in reading.

2.12.1 Framework

Every good speech has three main sections: **the introduction, the body, and the conclusion.** The first and the last together occupy approximately 10 to 15 % of the total speech. In other words, as the cliché goes: “ ***Tell them what you are going to tell them, then tell them, and finally tell them what you have told them.***” Begin by preparing the body because it is the core part of the presentation, then the introduction, and finally the conclusion

2.12.2 Number of Ideas

The number of ideas in your speech will depend on the time available among other things. Between 4 to 6 are ideal for most speeches.

2.12.3 Sample Plan/Outline/Pattern

BODY

I	II	III	IV
A	A	A	A
B	B	B	B
C	C	C	C
D	D	D	D

2.12.4 Introduction

Gain audience attention
 Suspense, shock,
 Humour, * commonality
 & quotation

Establish **S-A-T connection (speaker,
Audience, topic)

Conclusion

General summary

Quotation

Illustrations

Startling statistic

Orient the audience (preview the speech)

Relevant humour

Surprising statement, etc.

*** Commonality** – Find some shared belief or idea to use as an introduction to the point of divergence. This works best particularly with a hostile audience.

**** S-A-T** – Establish the link between the speaker, the audience and the topic.

2.12.5 Linear Outline

I. Main idea

- 6. Subordinate point
- 1. Supporting material
- 2. Supporting material
- 3. Supporting material.

7. Subordinate point

- 8. Supporting material
- 9. Supporting material
- 10. Supporting material.

II. Main idea, etc

2.12.6 Pre and Post-Speech Analysis

Always rehearse your presentation or do what is called a “dry run”. This may show you whether or not you need to improve on content or on your manner of presentation. Time yourself in order to ensure that your speech will fit in the time allocated for that purpose.

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2.13 SUMMARY

The unit has covered various aspects of listening and oral skills. We have seen listening defined as the active process of receiving aural stimuli (De Vito, 1987:26). Hearing, on the other hand, is simply perceiving sounds. Listening is more than just part shown as a passive, automatic process of simply

receiving spoken communication. Effective listening takes time and effort; it is at times very difficult, but the returns mostly justify the efforts. Poor listening, on the other hand can be disastrous and costly. Active listening is hard work because it requires concentration on what the lecturer or speaker is

12.14 FURTHER READING



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- 3.0 LESSON 3: READING SKILLS**

3.1 Introduction

This section is divided into seven lessons. Each lesson has an activity/assignment which you should do to test your understanding of the lesson.

Lesson one explores the definition of reading and discusses the different styles which people apply when reading. Each reading style is determined by the purpose for which the reading is undertaken. The purposes for reading have been discussed and the relevant reading style for each purpose indicated.

Lesson two explores surveying as a reading style while lesson three deals with skimming and scanning.

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Lesson four helps you to differentiate among light reading, word-by-word reading and intensive reading styles. Bad reading habits that hinder comprehension are mentioned in this lesson.

Lesson five discusses the SQ3R reading technique/formular while lesson six highlights note making and summary writing techniques.

Lesson seven explains the importance of diagrams in written texts as well as in note-making. Steps necessary in transcoding and coding information from or into diagrams are therefore explained.

The word ‘reading’ is very familiar to anybody who has gone through formal education and even those who have not done any schooling. In fact, it is the second receptive learning skill that children are introduced to after listening.

But familiarity does not always signify understanding of meaning. I must confess that reading as an activity is a complex process that is difficult to define. It involves many of the body senses. Depending on the senses with which one is endowed, it may call for seeing, hearing or even touch. Even a sighted reader must mentally hear the words she/he reads although at an advanced stage of reading, hearing what one reads is a bad habit that slows down reading. Imagination and memory are also simultaneously involved when one reads.

Effective reading involves interpreting, understanding or generally making sense of the word. For this to happen, the reader’s attention and thought are required, as well as his/her emotional and intellectual participation.

The fact that different readers may interpret the same text differently implies the readers put meaning into what they read. The meaning that a reader may put on a piece of writing is determined by several factors. For example, his/her background knowledge or experience of the subject, the emotional appeal of the subject or the reader's intellectual ability.

Reading is a very important activity especially for university students like you because most of the academic knowledge that they acquire or recreate from research, comes from or is influenced by reading.

Reading widely will help you as a student to interact with great minds of all times from different backgrounds and cultures.

Reading is a very versatile activity because it can take place almost anywhere: in a classroom, library, house, vehicle, train – the list can be endless. You as a student therefore need to develop good reading techniques and habits in order to be an effective and efficient reader.

OBJECTIVES



By the end of this lesson, you should be able to:

1. Define reading in a wide context.
2. Write down the purpose for which you need to read.
3. Evaluate the effectiveness of your current reading habits.

People read for pleasure, to acquire information both general and academic, to get instructions on how to do things or reach a destination. People also read to broaden their general knowledge and to be generally well informed. This has become more important in the twenty first century than ever before. This is because peoples of the world are interacting more today, in all spheres of life than ever before. Reading widely will help you not only master your academic subjects, but also know more about other peoples of the world and their cultures. This will help you to interact better with them when the time comes.

3.2 PURPOSE FOR READING

3.2.1 Reading for Pleasure/Entertainment

Many people today are under great pressure of time. They find it difficult to associate with friends for past time activities like partying. In spite of their busy schedules, people can get very lonely. Reading for pleasure can provide an outlet to this loneliness. The materials that are read for pleasure are: novels, storybooks, cartoons, magazines, sections of newspapers that are on entertainment, and many others. While reading for entertainment, you will also get some information. The reading will therefore have served a double purpose.

3.2.2 Reading for General Information

If you read widely on all subjects, you will be more and better informed. It has been rightly said that “knowledge is power”. If you have good knowledge about issues or on how to do things you will certainly be successful in your endeavors. Good general knowledge will also help you to socialize with people from all walks of life. This can help you to lead a more successful and happier life.

Try to read widely on all emerging issues be they social, cultural, economic, political, or technical. A lot of information on a wide variety of issues is currently being circulated via the Internet. You need to learn how to use the Internet so that you can access the information, retrieve and read it.

3.2.3 Reading to Get Instructions or Directions

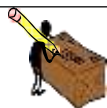
We are living in the ‘do it yourself’ age. Manufacturers of goods of all sorts carefully prepare operational manuals and package them with the goods. It is necessary that the users who will buy those goods are able to read and follow instructions for maximum benefit. At one time or another, you will be one such user. You therefore need to be a keen and effective reader.

These are also days of wide travel and if you cannot use ‘travel guides’ well, you could find yourself lost in some part of the world one of these days. **3.2.4 Reading for Academic Purposes**

The university is the place where the highest level of learning takes place. University students, their professors, and other people who have attained university degrees and are avid readers are often referred to as academicians. You have not joined ranks with academicians; and therefore you are expected to master knowledge in your subject area of specialization. For you to attain mastery of the knowledge you need to read very widely on the subjects, conduct library research, analyze information and report on it in form of term papers. This way you create further reading materials and hence knowledge. Materials that can be read for academic information are: text books, reference books, general and specialist journals, magazines and special sections of newspapers.

To be an efficient and effective reader you need to master the reading skills/strategies taught in this unit. These reading skills/strategies will be the subject of our discussion in the next lesson.

ACTIVITY 3 (A)



- Compare the definition you have held for reading with the definition given in this lesson.
- Write a list of the written materials you have read in the past one-year and say why or what motivated you to read them.
- Write down a summary of the information that you can remember from at least three of the readings.
- If you can remember a lot or very little of what you read in the years, give reasons why you think this is so.

3.3 TYPES OF READING

There are several styles/ways/techniques of reading. They are: survey, skimming, scanning, word-by-word reading, light reading, intensive/critical reading. Each of these

styles of reading will be discussed fully in later lessons. However, it is important for you to remember that the style you will adapt at different times will be determined by the purpose for which you will be reading and your intellectual level – your ability to understand and interpret what you read. In this lesson we shall look at survey.

3.3.1 Survey

The word ‘survey’ is technically used by geographers and professional surveyors. It means taking a general view of a land form. Taken generally, it means establishing the physical condition of something. In reading, it means taking a general view or looking over a reading text to determine its relevance and worth for a specific reading purpose. It helps the reader to predict in a very short time, what a reading text is all about and to determine its degree of relevance to you as a reader. You then can decide whether to read the book or not, or whether to read a part or parts of it and which part.

According to Muchiri (1993:17), a person surveying a book should ask him or herself the following questions:

1. Is it relevant to the topic I am interested in?
2. Is all of it relevant or only a part? Which part?
3. Is it by a reputable writer whose judgment can be trusted?
4. Is it up to date? (If this is necessary for the topic)
5. Is it too far above or too far below (or just the right) level I am studying at?

Surveying can be done at two levels:

1. Book/ reading material selection level
2. Selected book level

3.3.2 Surveying a Book/ Reading Material Selection Level

When you are surveying books or any other reading materials like journals or magazines to select the ones you should read for a given purpose, you should examine the following parts of the book/reading material:

- The Title – it should touch on the subject of your interest. However, this does not mean the book will be automatically relevant for your specific purpose. You must check other sections of the book to determine its usefulness for your purpose.
- The Publishers’ blurb – this is the publishers’ description of what the book is about. It is usually found on the flyleaf of the jacket or back cover of the book.
- Reviewers’ comment – you should carefully scrutinize these because they could be biased.

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- The Forward, Preface or Introduction
- The Content Page (chapter headings and subheadings)

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- The Index and Glossary section if available. These will show you at a glance the specific issues/things or items dealt with in the book.
- The Printing history; that is, when the book was first published, where and by who. Whether the book has been revised, reprinted or re-edited. This information is usually printed on one of the first pages also called prelims.
- The Author(s) – if any information on the author's background is given it is necessary that you read it. Different publishers put information on the author either in one of the front pages or on the outer part of the back cover. However, the author's name appears on the front cover below the title. It is important to read about the author to decide on his/her expertise on the subject and hence his/her credibility.

3.3.3 Surveying the Selected Book

After establishing through 'surveying at book selection' level that a book is relevant for your reading purpose, you should do further surveying of the specific areas to be read. Many readers call this type of surveying previewing. It will give you an overview of the cultural text. When previewing a book, you should look at the following:

- diagrammatic representations given in the book if any: illustrations, charts, maps, graphs etc.
- signals and signs that the author uses to prepare your perceptual experience as you read. The signals occur before, within and after chapters or texts depending on the organization of the reading material or book. These signals are also referred to as pre- chapter, intra-chapter, and post-chapter guides respectively.

Pre-chapter/text guides: these may be questions, quotations, brief reports of a case study, story, illustration or challenging question. It is given at the introduction and has the purpose of arousing the reader's interest and curiosity.

Intra-chapter/text guides: these provide direction as you read. They focus attention on what is important and establish the order of information. Examples: highlighted words, major headings – bold face, italicized words, major headings and subheadings, use of different colours/sizes and other design features.

Post-chapter/text guides: this is information found at the end of a text. For example: a summary of major points, questions, lists of terms, chapter reviews, glossaries and suggested reading – bibliographies.

Surveying will help you to predict the content and know how to organize information that you receive. It will help you to specifically know what to look for in a text. You may turn heading or subheadings into questions whose answers you should seek as you later read the text. Questions on: what, how, when, who, which, where and why are particularly useful when you are doing serious reading. They will help you to comprehend the text better.

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ACTIVITY 3(B)

You are given the following to read about and write an essay on: HEALTH RISKS. The following references are related to health. Survey the references and pick out those references, which you think could help you in writing an essay on the theme – *health risks*.

Reference List

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3.4 SKIMMING AND SCANNING

3.4.1 Skimming

This is a reading strategy used when a reader wants to get the main (gist) of a text within a very short time. You will find this reading strategy very useful especially when you are under pressure of time to get some information from written texts.

Good writers organise ideas logically. Each idea is expressed in a paragraph and every paragraph has a topic sentence that expresses the main idea. Other sentences in the paragraph give information that supports the main idea in various ways: give clarifications, examples, illustrations, explanations, related data, etc.

When skimming a text for gist, you need to read the topic sentences only. The topic sentence is usually the first of a paragraph. But sometimes a writer may choose to make the second sentence of a paragraph the topic sentence of the paragraph. On rare occasions, a writer may make the last sentence of the paragraph the topic sentence. This is determined by the writing style that a writer may adapt to convey certain information.

Skimming through a text means identifying and reading the topic sentence only. Reading topic sentences will give you as a reader a clear understanding of the gist of the text. You can skim through a long text or even a book in just a few minutes and get the gist of the text/book.

3.4.2 Scanning

This is a very rapid search of some particular item of information in a text. For example, search for a name, date, statistical data/figure, an address, answer to a question, a phrase, etc. The essential point is that one ignores everything but the one item that one is scanning for. You need to be able to quickly scan parts of a book for items of information, which is important for your study.

Looking for an address or a telephone number in a directory or an item in the index part of a text or a reference in reference list are good examples of what you do when you do scanning. You can also scan a newspaper for a news item or an advertisement. The point

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is, you ignore everything else written but the very item you are looking for. This means looking very rapidly through the text till your eye rest on the items you are looking for. Once you find it, you slow down and read it in context, if necessary.

ACTIVITY



In each line of words written below (a-j), one word is printed on the left hand side of the slash (dividing line) and the same word is repeated on the right hand side. Scan for the repeated word and underline it. Spend only 15 seconds to complete the exercise.

- a. Newspaper/journal, periodical, magazine, newspaper, review, bulletin.
- b. Geology/geometry, psychology, physics, logic, geography, geology
- c. Anarchism/socialism, conservatism, maxism, liberalism, anarchism, capitalism
- d. Plumber/carpenter, stonemason, plumber, glazier, welder, muller
- e. Sheikh/king, shah, empire, prince, czar, sheikh
- f. Astronomy/astrology, astrophysics, cosmology, astronomy, astronomer, meteorologist
- g. Linen/colon, linen, muslin, denim, chiffon, satin
- h. Sappire/diamond, ruby, sapphire, emerald, jade, topaz
- i. Cobra/cobra, adder, mamba, boa, python, viper
- j. Indian/Iranian, Icelandic, Iraqui, Irish, Italian, Indian

The text below (TEXT1) is on some major health risks in developing countries. You will be required to use it when working on some of the activities provided for your practice in this unit.

3.4.3 TEXT 1 – HEALTH RISKS IN DEVELOPING COUNTRIES.

Cardiovascular Disease

1. Disease of the heart and circulation ("cardiovascular" disease)' together with cancer, are the commonest cause of death. They represent, in a most general sort of way, the biggest risk to life of all. Naturally, we must die. But the risk we want to avoid is of dying before we need to, of premature death due to raising the risks to ourselves in ways we need not. In particular, disease of the coronary arteries, which feed the heart muscles with

blood, has become an extremely important cause of premature illness, disability and mortality.

2. Coronary artery disease (or coronary heart disease, CHD) account for about 80% of all heart disease in developed countries. The actual changes in the arteries supplying the heart muscles include the thickening and stiffening of the walls of the blood vessels and narrowing of their interior by deposition of the fat (a process called atherosclerosis). The reduction in blood flow to the muscles may result in sudden death, or may damage the heart muscles in such way that although the individual remains alive the heart cannot perform the work required of it. (a state known as "being in heart failure"). Reduction in the coronary artery blood flow can cause severe pain in the chest on exercise (angina)
3. Cardiovascular diseases are particularly important as a cause of death in developed, industrial countries, where they are responsible for 40-80% of all deaths. Now, however, they are becoming a health problem in developing countries too.
4. A bright note is that in a few countries death rates from diseases of the coronary artery are stationary or beginning to fall, after years of rising. These improvements are contributing to grater life expectancy, and show that the technological world is not inevitably doomed to suffer heart disease as a result of modern lifestyle. In most nations, however, the trend is still upwards. And there are blood pressure is common in all industrial societies and in many developing countries, it contributes to the risk of stroke as well as to coronary heart disease. In the developing world, the infectious disease rheumatic fever, with consequential rheumatic heart disease, is still a major cause of illness and death; indeed it has been estimated that the commonest cause of heart disease among young people in the entire world is rheumatic fever and that in some countries it is responsible for about a third of all deaths from cardiovascular disease.

Cancer

5. Cancer is a terrifying word to many, bringing to mind gloomy notions of long illness terminated by a lingering and painful death. Many people believe that a diagnosis of cancer is a death warrant. It is hardly surprising that a set of diseases associated with such strongly fearful emotions have generated a powerful mythology. Among such popular myths is the idea that we are now experiencing an epidemic of cancer caused by pollution, additives and chemicals whose presence we cannot detect and against whose influence we are utterly powerless. In fact, as we will see, cancer death rates (with the exception of the lung) are really rather steady, and there is no more reason to fear cancer than any other potentially fatal disease. As we said at the beginning, we all have to go somehow.
6. What is cancer? Cancer is a blanket term embracing a very wide variety of diseases, all characterized by uncontrolled and disordered growth of abnormal cells. Cancer cells displace or destroy the normal cells of the body and, if not stopped, can spread to other parts and to different organs. For cells to grow and reproduce is perfectly normal, of course, but cells in cancer tissue grow faster and divide more rapidly than in the normal tissue from which they are derived.
7. Cancer is predominantly a disease of middle age and later, and is rather rare in children and young adults. For people over 80 it is a commoner cause of death than disease of the heart and lung, but overall about three times as many people die from cardiovascular disease as from all the cancers put together.

8. As countries develop, incorporating better public sanitation and medical care systems, which have their greatest effect on diseases other than cancer, the death rate from cancer can, apparently, rise. This is simply because more people are living longer and have thus more chance of developing the disease. It does not mean that the risk of getting cancer is being increased by new or more potent external hazards.
9. The steady rise in the overall death rate from lung cancer is easily the most worrying aspect of this group of disease. The main increases recently have been among females with only the youngest women showing a decline in death rate over years. What we are witnessing now is the heavy price we must pay for the large number of women who started to smoke in the nineteen twenties, thirties and forties, because of the long time which exists between exposure to a given carcinogen and the development of the disease.

Respiratory Disease

10. Diseases of the respiratory system, the lungs and airways are the third most important causes of death (after cardio-vascular disease and cancer) in most developed countries. If lung cancer is classed as a respiratory disease rather than as cancer, then diseases of the lungs go into second place after diseases of the heart in order of importance.
11. Respiratory disease has always been a heavy burden on society in Britain. At the turn of the century, the commonest lung disease was bronchitis followed by tuberculosis and pneumonia, with a rather rare incidence of asthma and a very small number of cases of lung cancer. Since that time the incidence of bronchitis has fallen by about 75%, and tuberculosis and pneumonia have fallen dramatically in incidence as a result of better treatment, including the use of antibiotics. They are now relatively unimportant cause of death from lung disease. Asthma has shown a steady decline this century, but death rates do not correctly indicate the impotence of the condition in the community because sufferers rarely dies from asthma as such but, rather, from complications including infection.
12. All the decline in infectious diseases of the chest has been cancelled out by a tremendous rise in the incidence of lung cancer, starting in the 1920s and leveling off only recently, so lung cancer is now easily the commonest cause of death from respiratory disease and more than twice as important as bronchitis.
13. At work, many people over the years have been exposed to toxic agents which have affected their lungs. In Britain the coal mining, iron and steel industries have caused exposure to dust, which has resulted in chronic lung disease. However, under present conditions, the evidence is that the exposure to industrial dust of this kind contributes little to death or illness, being completely overwhelmed by the importance of the workers' smoking habits. Only in the slate industry in Wales has dust disease been at least as important as smoking in recent years.

Accidents and Violence

14. Along with the decline in infectious disease, the relative importance of accidental death has greatly increased during the course of this century. It has now become the single most

important cause of death among young people and the biggest single cause of lost years of potential working life.

15. In England and Wales the absolute number of people dying each year from accidents and violence (including poisoning) since the turn of the century has changed very little. In the five-years period 1901-05 just under 100,000 people were killed from these causes, and in the five-year period 1976-80 just over 100,000. With the increase in population over this period, the death rate from injury per million has actually fallen during this century by one-third, from 480 to 299.
16. Averaged on population basis, therefore, the risk of dying from accidental injury, violence or poisoning is now about one in 3,300 each year.
17. Turning now to the rest of the world, as usual we find gaps in the data available. For example the WHO Annual Mortality Statistics has no information on causes of death of any kind for India, Pakistan, the USSR or China, or for almost all South America or Africa. Assuming a worldwide population of about 4.5 billion people, injury expert Professor Julian Waller estimates that approximately 375,000 deaths a year occur from unintentional injury. Among countries that do report to the World Health Organizations, the available figures indicate that no matter what the state of development of a nation, deaths from injury represent some 3 to 10% of all deaths in all countries. There are great difficulties in assessing the significance of death rates for various types of injuries within countries, let alone in comparing country to country. As Waller points out, if a person with a disease has a dizzy spell, falls, breaks a hip and dies from cardio-vascular complications of lying immobile in bed, there will be considerable differences between various administrations as to whether the death will be attributed to the fall or to the heart disease.

Infectious Disease

18. We have seen how, in the developed world, deaths from injury and violence have taken from infectious diseases as the most important causes of death for the first half of life. As we approach the end of the 20th Century, however, it is clear that this picture certainly does not apply in the developing world and, moreover, it may no longer be true for the developed world within a few years.
19. In the developing world, infectious disease still runs rife. We have already pointed to the high incidence of rheumatic fever and subsequent rheumatic heart disease. In far too many areas of the Third World we will find very much the same conditions as were common in the dark days in industrial Europe, one hundred and more years ago. There are enormous shortcomings in medical attention, sanitation and nutrition, especially in Africa, Asia and Latin America. In Britain and United States, we have virtually conquered epidemic diseases such as polio, measles, tetanus and diphtheria, but only in the case of smallpox can worldwide success be claimed. All the other infectious epidemic diseases run rife. Simple diarrhea is the largest single killer in the third world. The effects of the classic tropical diseases, of which malaria is still the most important, continue to be devastating. The overall world malaria situation has not improved for 15 years, and is deteriorating in poorer rural areas. River blindness, schistosomiasis and sleeping sickness still afflict millions of people

in tropical areas. In the poorer nations infectious diseases will continue easily to outweigh the importance of diseases of lifestyle and environment for the foreseeable future.

20. Comparatively recently, a new infectious disease has been added to the list of those which are already scourges of central Africa, and has become a problem of extraordinary enormity. This is Acquired Immune Deficiency Syndrome, or "AIDS", which is now also spreading rapidly throughout the developed world and threatens by the end of the century to exceed accidents and violence as the commonest single cause of death among the young, and be by that time the single biggest cause of loss of productive years of life.

3.5 OTHER TYPES OF READING

3.5.1 Light Reading

This is the way most people read most of the time. There is neither an attempt to digest the material that is read nor is there any attempt to assess it critically. This kind of reading tends to be fast and superficial. It is the kind of reading most people apply when they read newspapers and novels. Other reading strategies like skimming and scanning can also be applied when somebody is reading lightly. This kind of reading is not recommended for study purposes but you can use the technique when reading for leisure. However, when you become a serious scholar, you will find it difficult to read anything without trying to understand it more deeply.

3.5.2 Word by Word Reading

This reading technique is used when one is learning how to read for the first time. You might use the technique if you decide to learn a new language like French or German even at your age. Word by word reading means trying to understand fully one word or phrase at a time. It is a slow reading technique.

Scientists and mathematicians use it when they are studying scientific or mathematical process and formulae. If you are studying mathematics or physical science, you probably will use this reading technique.

3.5.3 Intensive Reading

Intensive reading is comprehensive. It is thorough and concentrated. It takes place after one has surveyed a text; probably skimmed through it to get the gist or even scanned it for some salient items needed for better understanding.

The purpose for intensive reading is to understand the text deeply. The reader may need to understand how a process works; the reasoning behind it; the argumentation for or against a certain idea, proposition or premise to determine the validity of such an argument to be able to support it or make alternative proposition.

BY SIR OTONDE MICHAEL AWITI

An intensive reader is more intellectually involved with the text he/she reads. He/she relates ideas/issues raised in the text with what he/she already knows about them from other readings, discussions, lectures and seminars or from personal experience. The reader tries to see how those ideas can be applied or adapted to different situations.

This kind of reading tends to be analytical, critical and evaluative. This is the kind of reading you, as a University student is required to engage in when studying. It will lead you to doing library research for purposes of writing term papers and problem solving activities.

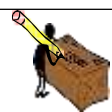
The fact that you will be required to read intensively/comprehensively does not mean that you will read slowly. In fact at the university level you are expected to be able to read fairly fast and at the same time, effectively and efficiently. This is because you are expected to read very widely for general information and also in the areas of your subject specialization.

To be an effective and efficient reader, you need to get rid of some bad reading habits, which many readers have. For example:

- i) Trying to understand every word that you read and consulting the dictionary from time to time as you read. This is a bad habit because it will slow down your reading and interfere with comprehension since stopping reading to check the meaning of a word from the dictionary slows your reading and interferes with the flow of thought as you read. The meaning of what is written mainly lies with the main ideas expressed (context) rather than with individual words. If you cannot get meaning of a word from the immediate context read on, it might become clear later on. Strange words should be dealt with at previewing stage or noted and checked after the reading has been done. Note difficult words by underlining them lightly with a pencil. You can later erase the marks. When you look up in the dictionary, check the pronunciation and study the meaning.
- ii) Vocalization (sounding out) or moving lips as you read. This slows down reading to a speaking pace and is therefore inefficient.
- iii) Retrogression. This means reading forwards and backwards. It hinders comprehension unless you are doing word by word reading.
- iv) Putting a finger, pencil or pen over what is being read, may be to help the eye movement or mark the lines. This is not only slow but also clumsy. If you cannot see clearly, consult with an optician to get the assistance of magnifying glasses.

NB Remember: an efficient reader can read more than 700 words per minute with at least 70% comprehension.

ACTIVITY 3(D)



Read the text below, “The Reader You Can Become” and answer the questions that follow it by circling the letter that marks the correct answer among the four choices given. Remember, Do not look back at the passage as you answer the questions. Try to spend about five minutes

only to both read the passage and answer the questions. Record the time when you begin reading and when you finish.

3.5.4 TEXT 2: THE READER YOU CAN BECOME

The efficient reader gets what he wants from his reading without wasting time and effort. His speed and his method vary with his purpose. Sometimes he wants to read fairly slowly in order to read quickly when he wishes. He can grasp the main ideas accurately and skip details when he chooses. We can say that the chief characteristic of the efficient reader is flexibility. Perhaps you have a test tomorrow on the first chapter of your chemistry text. Or, for a literature course, you are to read a short story and decide why a certain character behaved as he did. Or you need to collect information for an essay on 'Problems of Palm Oil Production'. You may find that there are ten minutes before your next class and decide to get a general idea of the day's news from the paper. A friend has mentioned an article on "The Educated Nigerian Woman" and you wonder if it says anything new on the subject. Before sleeping, you decide to relax with a detective story.

It is obvious that these situations call for different kinds of reading. The efficient reader is able to read at different speeds to choose the most appropriate speeds and methods for the particular reading he is doing.

The efficient reader is also intent on achieving a particular purpose, which means that his mind is alert and questioning: "Are there any facts here not covered in today's lecture?" "How will the author support such a claim?" Such questions give a reason for reading on. In addition, they help the reader decide when he can go quickly and when he should slow down.

He not only thinks ahead about what he wants to find out; he also relates what he is reading to what he already knows or has just read. He thinks: "That explanation was confusing, but this example makes the point clear". Or, "The author's opinion on this issue is the opposite of my history lecturers."

The reader who forms the habit of thinking ahead and looking for relationships can often anticipate what the author will say next. This speeds up comprehensions and gives the reader a sense of satisfaction. Finding out that he has made a wrong guess encourages him to pay more attention. Whether he is right or wrong, he is reading to his reading.

Another important fact about this reader is that he reads meanings rather than individual word. He is always looking for key words and ideas and trying to pick out essentials from what is less important. He is much too busy asking questions and reacting to his reading to say every word to himself as the poor reader may do. It should be easy now to see why the efficient one, may still understand and remember more of it. And why he can concentrate, and read for long periods without getting tired and frustrated. He enjoys reading because he knows how to get what he wants or needs both easily and accurately.

BY SIR OTONDE MICHAEL AWITI

Since he finds reading rewarding, he probably does more of it. He has the time and interest to move beyond textbooks to books of his own choosing. His vocabulary, his use of English, his general knowledge and his critical judgement all improve in the best and most natural way: while he reads for his own interest and pleasures.

It is a major purpose of this course to help you become more like the reader described in this passage.

Without looking back at the passage, choose what you think is the best answer to each question below and put a circle around the appropriate letter. 1 This passage is mainly about methods of reading more

- a) Rapidly
- b) Effectively
- c) Carefully
- d) Widely

2 It emphasizes reading for

- a) Various purposes
- b) Literature classes
- c) Study purposes
- d) Relaxation

3 The most important thing influencing the way we read should be our

- a) Reactions
- b) Education
- c) Reward
- d) Purpose

4 Saying each word to ourselves as we read is a sign of

- a) Attentive reading
- b) Efficient reading
- c) Poor reading
- d) Scientific reading

5 The efficient reader understands accurately

- a) Fairly slowly
- b) Flexibility
- c) Quickly
- d) Carefully

6 The efficient reader understands accurately

- a) Everything he reads
- b) All the facts he reads
- c) About half of what he reads
- d) As much as he requires

- 7 In his reading, he usually
- a) Agrees with the author
 - b) Relates his reading to what he already knows
 - c) Studies unusual words
 - d) Re-reads interesting sentences.
- 8 The efficient reader normally concentrates on
- a) Key words and ideas
 - b) Paragraph development
 - c) Important details
 - d) Individual word
- 9 He probably reads more than the poor reader, because he
- a) Wants to improve in English
 - b) Reacts critically
 - c) Finds reading rewarding
 - d) Has a better vocabulary
- 10 A major purpose of this course is
- a) Stated at the beginning of the passage
 - b) Stated at the end of the passage
 - c) Stated many times in the passage
 - d) Not stated in the passage.

3.6 A READING FORMULA

3.6.1 The Sq3r

Human beings have a great capacity to forget what they see, hear or even read. Psychologists have concluded that forgetting is the only way human brain can cope with the mammoth amounts of information that it receives every day from various sources.

However, forgetting does not mean wiping out information from the brain. It means transferring the ‘forgotten’ information to the ‘long-term memory’. This is necessary to allow room for new information.

Information in the long-term memory may be retrieved when needed after a simple exercise of trying to remember.

Scholars in reading agree that the SQ3R study formula is effective in helping students get what they need from written texts, record it and be able to remember and use it at the appropriate time.

The letters SQ3R stands for the following reading activities:

S: means Survey. This reading style has already been discussed in Section 3.2.3 of this unit. Through surveying, you will be able to select the reading materials appropriate for your purpose.

Q: means Question. Before reading you should formulate some questions with regard to your purpose for reading. The questions should be on the kind of information you are seeking. As you read you should try to note answers to your questions as well as other issues related to the subject in general.

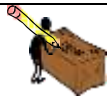
1st R: stands for Read. This means that you read the text to understand the ideas and issues raised. You may accept or reject ideas, views, argumentations raised or examples given and may raise your own counter views and ideas. You may also accept the writer's views partially.

It is at this time that you as a reader should make note of points, ideas, argumentations, illustrations, etc that provide answers to the questions you raised before you began to read. The reading style you adopt – skimming, comprehensive, etc will be determined by your need.

2nd R: means Recall/Recite. This is post-reading exercise. At this point you may go over the notes made during reading and even make additional notes or summaries. This is the stage when you close your book and try to answer the questions that you formulated before you stated to read.

3rd R: means Review. This is only necessary if you need to remember what you have learned from your reading, as you would do for an examination. Often you will be able to refer back to your notes when you need the information you have recorded. The review stage requires you to try to remember as much as possible of what you have learnt at regular intervals. You should do the first review within 24 hours and followed it up with fortnight reviews (Bint, et al 1990:20)

ACTIVITY 3(E)



1. Imagine that you were asked to write an essay. "Describe the major Health Risks in Developing countries". Survey the Table of contents provided below and identify the 4 chapters from this book that you would look at first for the information you might need to write the essay on health risks?

(1) _____	(2) _____
(3) _____	(4) _____
2. Before you look at the chapters you have chosen, answer the following questions. Write some notes for each answer.
 - i) What do you already know about the topic?
 - ii) What new information do you think you will find?
 - iii) What do you need to find out in order to answer the theme task?
3. Read the Text 1 on health risks in Section 3.3.3 of this unit and do the following exercise.
 - i) Underline all the topic sentences.
 - ii) Make notes on key ideas that you will use to write the essay on health risks.

3.7

NOTE-MAKING

As we have said, when you read, you need to have your purpose for reading established and quite clear to you. As you read, you should carefully ponder what the writer is saying – try dialoguing with the writer.

Follow his/her argumentation to get ideas, facts, opinions and the evidence given to support these. Check whether the ideas are logical and objective or fallacious/false.

Before you make a note, you need to get the writer's idea and reflect on it, compare it with other ideas you have on the same subject and weigh its appropriateness. Assess the validity of the writer's examples, illustrations and other arguments supporting devices. All this should happen instantaneously as you read and should not even interfere with your reading speed, which should be quite fast at university level.

Sometimes you may underline a noteworthy item in the text or make an annotation in the margin if the text book in use is yours. However, this practice should not be extended to library references, which are read by many other people for different purposes.

Remember that notes are personal and their usefulness to you will be determined by your understanding of the text, your reading purpose and your ability to be selective and critical while making them.

Try to use your own words as much as possible when you make notes. This is a reflection of your understanding of the text. It means you have 'processed' the information

and internalized it. Two processes in note-making that you need to be conversant with are paraphrasing and summarizing. Read the unit on writing at this stage to understand what they involve. (See Section 6.8.3 and 6.8.4) As Okombo (1990: 39-40) puts it, you should note:

- important facts, statistics or data, useful definitions, new technical terms that you need, insightful comments and some particularly interesting arguments.

Occasionally, you may want to quote directly from the text, that is using the writer's own words. When this happens, remember to acknowledge that you have used others' words through footnoting or other referencing devices. Using your note-making to indicate the sources of your information makes writing easier since you are expected to produce the books or references you have read while writing the essay.

If you use the notes made from a reference to write, say a term paper, or a book, you should put the reference you read in your bibliography list. If you do not do this, you will be guilty of plagiarism, that is, stealing other people's ideas and using them as they were your own original ideas. The unit a Library explains more what a bibliography is. You are advised to check what a bibliography is before you proceed.

3.7.1 Where to Write Notes

Notes may be written on foolscap paper, exercise books, or note cards. All the bibliographic details of each reference should be written above the notes made from it. These bibliographic details are: the author of the work, the title, the place (city) where the work was published, the publisher and date of publication. If the work has been revised, the edition or revision should also be indicated. If a direct quotation/citation has been made, the page (p) or pages (pp) from which it was made should also be indicated. A detailed explanation of this will be found on the Library Skills Unit.

Note format: you should give your notes a structure to make them more intelligible to you.

When making notes, use short writing forms in order to spend as little time as possible in writing.

Examples of short form of writing:

- Use non-sentence. Notes can be devoid of the basic sentence structure – subject + verb + object
- They are characterized by use of dashes (-), numbers or letters to mark the points. Serious punctuation is also absent.
- Abbreviations, symbols and signs and acronyms are used instead of complete words. However you must ensure that you remember what your abbreviations and signs represent. In addition to using standard abbreviations, you can also coin your own. You should make a key to explain what the abbreviations etc stand for in case you forget.

ACTIVITY 3(F)



1. Write down the meanings of the following abbreviations and acronyms which you might use in your note making exercise:

c. –	resp.-	mg -	KU -	UNEP -
cf –	opp. -	incl -	UoN -	KEMRI -
eg –	temp -	se -	KETRI -	FORD
esp. -	deg -	Dept -	UNESCO -	

2. Write the meanings of the following symbols:

?	∴	∴
	∴	∴
○	→	<
()	<=>	≡
=		

3.8 TRANSCODING

In addition to using continuous prose, writers code information in diagrammatic displays. There are different types of diagrammatic displays for example: sociograms, charts, tables, graphs & maps.

Diagrams are effective means of communicating information because of the following factors:

- they are concise
- they demonstrate relationships between variables graphically
- they help one to predict trends
- because of their precision, they summarize results more effectively than continuous prose
- they communicate a lot of information at a glance
- they lack the ambiguity of continuous prose
- they are easy to remember because they leave a picture in the mind that one can always ‘see’

Writers who code information into diagrams are careful to:

- ❑ provide detailed titles indicating the scope of information provided
- ❑ indicate at the top of the diagram the quantities and units of measure (000,000,000) etc in which you will be dealing with and to which figures refer e.g. the measure could be in percentage, tones, dollars, litres or just numbers.
- ❑ if more than one tables are used, each is numbered to avoid confusion when making reference
- ❑ provide a scale for those diagrams that require it and indicate variables for the different axis
- ❑ state sources of the diagrams if they are not their original production
- ❑ provide a key to the shadings that may be made to differentiate different entities

As a reader you should study carefully the guideline on how to use diagrams in order to be able to transcode/interpret them correctly. You can use diagrams in your note making exercise to summarize information.

ACTIVITY 3(G)



Prepare a diagrammatic representation of the information in the passage on Health Risks in section 3.43

3.9 SUMMARY



In this lesson , the focus has been on how to read more effectively in order to meet a variety of needs. Guidelines for use in accessing information more easily have been provided as well steps to use so as to gain deeper understanding of a given text. Towards this end , the SQ3R reading formula was presented as a technique that can increase access to information as well as improve memory and understanding. How to survey, skim and scan texts was explained as well as how to make useful notes. Through out the unit the importance of reading as a learning tool for higher education was stressed. For you to become a better reader, you will need to put in a lot of practice in reading. As you try to become a more efficient reader, keep in mind the saying: “as exercise is to the body, so is reading to the mind”. The more you read, the better you get at it.

3.10 FURTHER READING.



Ball, F. (1977) The Development of Reading Skills: A book of Resources for Teachers. Oxford: Basil Blackwell.

Bint, P. et al (1990) . A university course in academic communication skills: resource book. Nairobi: Oxford University Press.

Muchiri, M. N. Communication skills: A self-study course for universities and colleges. Nairobi: Longman, 1993.

Okoth, O. (1990) A students' Guide to Writing and Study Skills. Nairobi: Nairobi University Press.

Wallace, C. (1992). Reading, New york; Oxford University Press.

4.O LESSON 4 : LIBRARY SKILLS

4.1 INTRODUCTION

Libraries form useful centers for teaching and learning in academic institutions. Their roles and applications will be discussed in this section. In so doing you will cover the rationale for library skills, organization of the library materials, the library catalogue, information sources and services. Other concepts you will cover include, referencing techniques and research strategies. These concepts are all important for your scholarly research. You will use them in various aspects of your college study, particularly in researching for useful and relevant information when writing your term papers and preparing for examinations.

OBJECTIVES



By the end of this lesson, you should be able to:

1. Explain the role of library in learning
2. Define and explain what a library is
3. Correctly explain the different types of libraries

4.1.1 The Role of Library In Learning

In a university the role of a library is to support teaching, learning and research by providing information resources and services. The teaching approach at the university is student-centered. You will, therefore be expected to independently seek information. Libraries are the major sources of information and you will heavily rely on them for academic information. The information in the libraries cannot be effectively used unless it is appropriately organized for easy understanding by the users. This will be done through this course, the Library Skills.

Information is a vital commodity in any career, and knowing how and where to find it is important. More discussion on these aspects are in the next section.

4.1.2 What Is Information?

Technologically, information is an assemblage of data in an understandable form, recorded on a piece of paper or other medium, and capable of communication (Harrod's Librarians' Glossary, 1984). From scholarly perspectives, it is the knowledge obtained from investigation, study or instructions in form of lectures and seminars (Longman Dictionary of English Languages, 1985). Other than the knowledge gained from lectures and seminars, other form information can be acquired library.

4.1.3 What is a Library?

A Library is an information center that facilitates the use and access to information in form of books, non-book material and computerized databases. It is therefore a place where information is acquired, systematically organized and disseminated to users. Unlike the old usage where the stock and technical aspects were emphasized, the current usage of the term library places emphasis on the users and the service. It also considers various sources of information such as computerized databases, video recordings, microfilms, microfiches, books, journals whereas the old usage only emphasized on the

printed books. Whatever the emphasis, the role of a library in a university cannot be overemphasized.

4.1.4 The Role of a University Library

In a university, a library plays the role of the center for teaching, learning and research activities. It supports these activities by providing:

- Relevant and up to date information
- Useful resources as required by the users
- Services in a relaxed and good atmosphere for study

These are user-specific and depend on the type of the library in which the service are provided.

4.1.5 Types of Libraries

Libraries are categorized by the purposes they serve. The main types are summarized as follows.

1. Public Libraries

Public libraries serve the general public at all levels. Their aim is to provide information over the whole range of human knowledge, promote culture and play a positive part in encouraging an active use of leisure and recreational time. Examples of public libraries are the Kenya National Library Services (KNLS) and the Macmillan Library.

2. Academic Libraries

Academic Libraries are found in various institutions of learning but with similar aims. In institutions of higher learning such as the universities, colleges, and polytechnics, their main aim is to support learning, teaching and research activities. In primary and secondary schools they form the basis for wide reading and references. The purposes, services, equipment and other physical facilities of these libraries are determined by the nature of the curriculum and size of the faculty and students.

3. National Libraries

The main function of a national library is to ensure that all the publications of a particular country are acquired and preserved for posterity. The law requires that publishers deposit copies of all materials published in the country with the national library. National libraries also purchase books published in other countries. Other functions of a national library are:

- Production of a current bibliography
- Compile union catalogues

BY KELVIN EKALIYO, THE NEXT.

- Provision of national reference service
- Publishing
- Research and development in librarianship and information sciences

Examples of national libraries are the British library, Library of Congress and the Kenya National Library Services. The Kenya National Library Services serves both as a public as well as national library.

4. Special Libraries

These are libraries that serve specific subject fields. They include libraries in government ministries, parastatals, research institutes, industrial and commercial concerns and international bodies. Examples include ICIPE, ILARD, KIE, ICRAF, AMREF, UNESCO and Bankers' Institute Libraries.

5. Digital Libraries

These are mainly accessed through computers with Internet facilities. They store up to date information on diversified fields. Organized academic institutions provide such facilities but some charge a fee for the services. At Kenyatta University, such services are provided at the Kenyatta Virtual University (KVU) and the Cyber Café.

ACTIVITY 4(A)



1. Explain why libraries are important centres for scholars.
2. Visit any school in your area and find out:
 - (a) If the school has a library. Then
 - i) Who uses the library
 - ii) The type of material acquired for the library
 - (b) If the school does not have a library find out:
 - i) Its main source of academic information
 - ii) Type of materials that students and teachers prefer reading

4.2 ORGANIZATION OF LIBRARY MATERIALS

INTRODUCTION

In the previous lesson you learnt the role of library to be a centre for learning and its usefulness as a tool for research. In this lesson, you will learn how library materials can be organized to make it easy for users to retrieve relevant materials for research and be contented with the services offered in it.

4.2.1 Collections in a Library

Materials in a library are systematically arranged to enable users locate them without difficulties. This is made possible by showing sections for various collections and explicitly listing their services. The main collections include:

1. Open Shelves Books

These are organized in various sections according to their subject areas and are available for users' borrowing.

2. Periodicals

Periodical materials are separately shelved from other books and are not borrowed for use outside the library.

3. Short Loan

The publications shelved in this section are those on great demand by users. Library users can borrow them for use in short periods of 3 to 24 hours, depending on the users demand.

4. General Reference

These are general publications for quick reference by library users. They are for use in the library only and are shelved in the reference section.

5. Non-books Collections

The non-books collections consist of materials such as microfiche, cassettes tapes, videotapes, slides and filmstrips. They are usually housed in an audio-visual room. Their related materials such as cassette players, projectors, and microfiche readers are made available to the users. The uses of these materials are however, restricted to the audio-visual room.

6. Special Collections

Different libraries may acquire materials that may be either locally published or have been published for academic purposes. Such materials include: these and speeches from prominent leaders. Such collections are generally placed in "Africana" section of the library. The user of the special library is dependent on the specific library policy and regulations. Find out such a policy from your library guidelines. For easy organization, library materials are arranged according to subject classes.

4.2.2 Classification

What is classification? Classification is the grouping of like objects. For example, in a household the following items can be found: chairs, plates, pangas, stools, spoons, saucers, hoes, tables, knives, hammers, beds, cupboards, shelf, folks, slashers, mattocks, ploughs and pans.

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The above items are not arranged in any order. In order to identify them more quickly, a certain order may be necessary. By considering the application of such items in the household chores, similarly items can easily be identified by sorting them out into appropriate groups. The sorted out items can thus be arranged as follows:

A	B	C
Chairs	Plates	Pangas
Stools	Spoons	Hoes
Tables	Saucers	Hammers
Beds	Knives	Slashers
Cupboards	Folks	Mattocks

Shelf	Pans	Ploughs
-------	------	---------

From the above arrangement it is now easy to see that all the items in each group are similar in the way they are used in the household. Group A is for furniture, B for utensils while C is for the household tools. This process of sorting our items according to their likeness is called classification. It is general and can be used to sort out other items including library materials.

4.2.3 Classification of Library Materials

The purpose of classification in the library is to group documents on the same subject (likeness) together in one class; and to provide formal orderly access to the shelves. This process is accomplished by using various classification schemes.

4.2.4 Classification Schemes

A classification scheme is defined as arrangement of terms or classes into a systematic and orderly manner. There are several classification schemes but in this lesson, three will be mentioned. They are:

- Library of Congress Classification (LCC)
- Universal Decimal Classification (UDC)

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□ Dewey Decimal Classification (DDC)

The library of congress classification and the Dewey Decimal Classification will briefly be considered.

1. Library of Congress Classification Scheme

This classification scheme derives its name from the Library of Congress for which it was devised. It is, however used in many libraries. It consists of twenty-one major classes represented by letters of the alphabet (A-Z). The classes are as follows:

Library of Congress Main Classes

A	General works
B	Philosophy-Religion
C	History- Auxiliary Sciences
D	History (Except America)
E–F	History of the Americas
G	Geography – Anthropology
H	Social Sciences
J	Political Sciences
K	L aw
L	Education
M	Music
N	Fine Arts
P	Language and Literature
Q	Science
R	Medicine
S	Agriculture
T	Technology
U	Military Science
V	Naval science
Z	Bibliography and Library Science

Source: AMREF (1994: 438)

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Each of the main classes is further divided into subclasses that represent disciplines (major branches) of the main class. This is done by introducing an additional letter to the main one. The following are the examples of the subclasses in science. Thus:

Q	Science
QA	Mathematics
QB	Astronomy
QC	Physics
QD	Chemistry
QE	Geology
QH	Natural history (general). Biology (general)
QK	Botany
QL	Zoology
QM	Human anatomy
QP	Physiology
QR	Microbiology

Each subclass is also subdivided further into divisions that represent the components of the subclasses. This is done by introducing an Arabic number to the subclass. For example: QA 76 Mathematics.

2. Dewey Decimal Classification (DDC)

The Dewey Decimal Classification scheme devised by Melvil Dewey is the oldest and the most widely used in the world. It was first published in 1876. The scheme arranges library materials into ten main classes using Arabic numerals in the range 000-900. The main general classes are summarized below:

Dewey Decimal Classification Main Classes

000	Generalities
100	Philosophy and related disciplines
200	Religion
300	Social sciences
400	Language
500	Pure sciences
600	Technology (Applied sciences)
700	The arts
800	Literature (Belles-lettres)

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900 General geography and history and their auxiliaries

Source: AMREF (1994: 214)

These general classes are made more specific by dividing them into ten subclasses. Examples of such classes for pure sciences are as follows:

500 Pure sciences

510 Mathematics

520 Astronomy and allied sciences

530 Physics

540 Chemistry

550 Earth sciences

560 Palentology, Paleozoology

570 Life science

580 Botanical sciences

590 Zoological science

For practical purposes, each subclass is further divided into smaller divisions. An example of some of the divisions in physics (530) is as follows:

530 Physics

539 Modern physics

539.7 Atomic and Nuclear physics

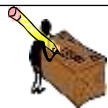
539.72 Particle physics

539.722 Ionizing radiations

539.7222 X and gamma rays

From the above examples, it is easy to see how the precision of each material is reached by division of the classes, subclasses and divisions. It is through such divisions that one is able to appropriately use library to gain access to relevant information sources. Such accessibility is also enhanced by knowing references resources as arranged in the reading list. This is discussed in the next section.

ACTIVITY 4(A)



Collect all reading materials in your household and classify them using:

- (i) Library of congress main classes
- (ii) Dewey Decimal Classification classes

4.3 INTERPRETING REFERENCES FROM A READING LIST

4.3.0 Introduction

In the previous lesson you learnt how materials are organized and located in various sections in a library. This section will introduce you to ways of interpreting a reading list in preparation for using a library.

4.3.1 Reading List

In supplementing their lecturers' notes, students need to use different information sources in the library in order to:

- (i) Acquire more information on topics covered during lectures
- (ii) Effectively do their assignments
- (iii) Prepare for their examinations by being familiar with relevant sources of information.

In order for students to accomplish this, lecturers guide their students to useful and relevant sources on which they can decide to read. Such a guide is provided using a reading list.

4.3.2 What Is A Reading List?

A reading list is a series of recommended books for a particular subject. Lecturers provide such a list in class after discussing a topic. It may also be provided at the end of a chapter of a book or an article in a journal. In some case the word Bibliography is used to describe such a list especially in a text book. The following is an example of a reading list:

Sociology (a sample of a reading list)

1. Alavi, H. and T. Shamin (1982). Introduction to the Sociology of “Developing Societies”. London: Macmillan

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2. Archer, M.S. (1988). Culture Agency: the place of culture and social theory. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press
3. Cartwright, D. and A. Zander (1968). Group Dynamics (3rdEdn). New York: Harper and Row Publishers
4. Hinde, R.A. (1979). Towards Understanding Relations. London: Academics Press
5. Lury, C. (1993) Cultural Rights: Technology, Legality and Personality. London: Routledge.
6. Mills, C.W. (1961). The Sociological imagination. New York: Grove Press
7. Napier, R.W and Gershenfield, M.K. (1999). Groups: Theory and Experience (6th). Boston: Houghton Mifflin Company.
8. Robinson, W.P (1996). Social groups and identities. Oxford: Butterworth- Heinmann
9. Sherman, H.J. and J.L. Wood (1982). Sociology: traditional and radical perspectives. London: Harper and Row.

4.3.3 Contents of Reading List

There are a number of items in a reading list and each item is called a reference. For example, in the reading list provided, the reference number 2 is:

Archer, M.S. (1988). Culture Agency: the place of culture and social theory. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.

All the items in a reading list are collectively referred to as references. In order to determine whether or not a book is in the library, it is important to know various parts of the reference, which are referred to as bibliographic information. These are details of a publication, which are sufficient to identify it from other publications. The main parts are the author, the title, city and publishers. These, among others, are explained in the next sections.

1. Author

The term author refers to a person, persons or corporate body that is responsible for the writing or compilation of either a book or other publication. It is important to distinguish and differentiate an author from editor, translator and compiler. However, failing to do so, any of these may be regarded as authors. In this module, the word author is widely used to include various types such as single and joint authors, compilers, editors and translators. Details of these are as follows;

2. Types of authors

There are two types of authors: personal and corporate authors.

(a) Personal author

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This is a person or persons who have written a particular book. When more than one person have jointly written the same book, they are said to be joint personal authors. Names of the personal authors are written in references with the surname appearing first, followed by forenames.

For example: (i) Blalock, Hubert M. Social statistics (2nd Edn). New York: McGraw-Hill Book Company, 1972

(ii) Mugenda, Olive M. and Mugenda, Abel G. Research Methods: quantitative and qualitative approaches. Nairobi; African center for Technology studies, 1998.

(b) Corporate Author

When a book has been written as a result of combined efforts of people working in an institution, organization, association or government department, the authorship is assigned to the corporate body. When more than one corporate author have written the same book jointly, they are referred to as joint corporate authors. Examples of corporate authorship are:

- (i) Republic of Kenya, Ministry of Education (1990). Secondary Mathematic: answer book four. Nairobi Kenya Literature Bureau.
- (ii) Kenya National Examinations Council (1985). Kenya certification of Education: Regulations and syllabuses. 1985/86. Nairobi: Kenya National Examination Council

© The title

Title is the name of a book that distinguishes it from other books. The main title is called title proper. Some books have a subtitle, which is a descriptive phrase that classifies or explains the title proper. It has to be included in order to make a particular book easily identifiable. For example:

	<i>Date</i>	<i>Title proper</i>
	▼	▼
Sherman, Howard. J. and James L. Wood (1982). Sociology: (traditional and radical perspective). London: Harper and Row.		▲
	▲	<i>Subtitle</i>
	▲	
<i>City of publication</i>	<i>Publisher</i>	

(d) Parallel title

A parallel title is the title given in a publication, but in another language or script other than that used in the text. Parallel titles are separated by the = sign. For example :

Kingala, Yusuf M. (1985). Nguzo za Kiswahili: Darasa la 8 = Foundation for Kiswahili : Standared 8. Nairobi Phoenix publishers.

ACTIVITY 4(B)



1. Identify and write down bibliographic details of the first 5 items in the provided list in this section.
2. State the main title and the subtitle in the item number 2,7 and 9

4.4. THE LIBRARY CATALOGUE

4.4.0 Introduction

In the previous section, you learnt various bibliographic details of a reference in a reading list. Their usage is made possible by a library catalogue, which you will learn in this section

4.4.1 What Is A Catalogue?

A catalogue is a list of available materials in a library arranged in some systematic. The arrangement facilitates the use of the collections and also acts as a guide to the library's materials. The main uses of the catalogue therefore are to:

- (a) Enables a person to find a document of which either the author, the title or the subject is known.
- (b) Show what the library has by a given author or in a given subject
- (c) Show which editions of a particular work are in the library

4.4.2 Forms of Catalogues

A catalogue can be presented in various forms. The main ones are:

(1) Card catalogues

In a card catalogue bibliographic information (details): the author, the title, place of publication, publishers, date of publication, pagination series, subjects and call number are recorded on a 5"X3" (i.e. 12.5cm X 7.5cm) catalogue cards. The cards are filled alphabetically in trays that are housed in catalogue cabinets. For nearly a century this has been the most common form of catalogue on use, but has now been surpassed by the computer catalogue.

(2) Book catalogue

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This is the oldest form of library catalogue. It was the dominant form of library catalogue in the 19th century. Entries handwritten, typed or printed on a conventional book type format. Each page of the book carries several entries.

(3) Microform catalogue

This type of catalogue is produced in either microfilm or microfiche. The entries are greatly reduced and can be read with a microfiche. The microfiche reader magnifies and displays information on the screen.

(4) Computerized catalogue

Computerized libraries store the bibliographic records in computers, such records are accessible via a computer terminal within the library. Similarly, those with online catalogue can retrieve records directly from a computer data base also via computer terminals in the library.

4.4.3 Types of Catalogues

The main types of catalogues found in most libraries :

(1) Author catalogue

This type of catalogue contains sources with authors names as heading and arranged alphabetically. The authors' names may be of persons or corporate bodies.

(2) Authors/Title catalogue

This is a catalogue with both title and author entries interfiled in one sequence. The entries are also arranged alphabetically.

For example:

DT	Mutibwa, P.M
3	African heritage
. M 83	

HD	Odieme, G.S
31	management by
.O3	objectives

PR	Mwagiru
9381.9	the day

. M 92	music died
D3	

(3) Subject catalogue

Like in any other catalogue subject entries are arranged alphabetically according to the subject headings. A subject heading is the word or a group of words under which similar library materials are entered on the subject catalogue. Examples are given below:

Single word subject heading

Botany
Education
Environment
Ethics
Railroads
Economics
Entries on cards:

Several words subject headings

Communication in management
Environmental education
Family planning
Education and church
Business education
Publication control

EDUCATION-FINANCE

LB Noah, H.J.
2824 Educational financing and
.M6 policy for primary
EDUsCchAoToIlsON-HIGHER
LA Otiende, James E
1563 Alternative future in
.08 higher education in the third
world

EDUCATION-AFRICA

LA Blakemore, K.
1500 A sociology of education
. B8 in Africa

EDUCATION	
LB	Adams, John
1025	Modern development in
.A34	education practice. London: University of
	London, 1928
	324p
	1 Teaching 1 Title

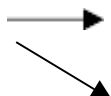
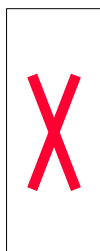
4.4.4. How to Use the Catalogue

In order to use a catalogue effectively it is necessary for you to know the ways of arranging entries in a catalogue depending on the subjects and scope of the library. An entry is an item in the catalogue whose arrangements parts are as follows:

Author Title place of publication publisher date of publication. These details can be presented on a card as follows:

These details can be presented on a card as follows:

Call
number
Class
number HF



Wool
cott,
Lysbeth A.

Secretarial studies
Author mark

Communication for Business and
5547
W6 Lysbeth A. Woolcott and Wendy
R. Unwin

Date and Edition 1978 2nd London: Macmillan, 1978
 Pagination 302 p (Macmillan text for Business studies)
 Tracing 1. Communication 2. Communication in management
 3. Office management. I. Unwin, Wendy R. II Title Joint author series.



ACTIVITY 4(C)



The following are details of some resources for communication skills.

1. LB Clay, Marie M (1972) Reading: the Patterning of complex behavior.
1050 London: Heinemann Education.
. c54
2. BF Wilkinson, Andrew M. The quality of Listening. London: Macmillan, 1974.
323
. L5
W54
3. LB Green, Lawrence. Getting Smarter: Simple strategies for better grades. Belmont:
1049 Davids Lake publishers, 1985.
. G7
4. LB Casey, Francis. How to study: a practical guide. Houndmills: Macmillan, 1985.
1049
. C37
5. T Fear, David E. Technical Communication (2nd ed). Glenview, Illinois: Scott,
10.5 Foresman, 1981
. F4

TASK

Analyze each of the itemized references above and use the information to fill in the following grid.

Item No	Call No	Class No	Author	City of	Publisher	Date of
				publication		publication
1						
2						
3						
4						
5						

4.4.5 How to Locate a Book Using the Catalogue

The following are the steps you would follow to locate a book by its author, title and subject using a catalogue.

1. Locating a book by its author

The following are the main steps

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- i) Consider the name of the author depending on the type of the author. This may be a personal or corporate author. If the author is personal, the surname comes first, followed by the forenames. For example, Ogeto, David; Kuuya, Masote; Munasinghe, Mohan; Mwangi, Lucy Wambui.

In the case of corporate author, names of institutions and organizations are entered in a direct order. Examples are: Government ministries; African Development Bank; Kenya Ministry of Education and Human resource Development.

- ii) Then find the author in the appropriate drawer the Author or Author /Title catalogue.
- iii) After you have found the author card, copy the call number of the book.
- iv) Locate the book on the shelves using the call number.

2. Locating a book by its title The following are the steps:

- i) Use the first word of title to find title card in the Title or Author /Title catalogue. The article: “ a”, “an” and “the” are ignored when they occur before the title. For example: An introduction to biology (ignore “an”); A dictionary of computers (“ignore a”) and The death of God (ignore “the”).
- ii) Find the title of the card in the appropriate drawer of the title catalogue or
Author / Title iii) After you have found the title card, copy down the call number of the book.
- iv) By using the call number, proceed to the appropriate bay and locate the book on the shelves using the call number.

3. Locating a book by its subject.

The following are the main steps:

- i) Identifying key words from a given topic. For example, if you are working on information on higher education in Kenya, you formulate and look under the headings: Education, higher; Education, Kenya.
- ii) Locate possible subject headings in the drawer in the subject catalogue iii) Consider synonymous terms of the subject headings iv) Check the relevant records to your topic
- v) Write down bibliographic details of each source identified (i.e. author, title, and the call number, proceed to the relevant bay and locate the book on the shelves using the call number.

To assist users in formulating subject headings, some libraries keep standardized lists of subject headings (Find out this from your library). A list of subject headings consist of terms that are used to access information.

In order for you to locate books on the shelves easily, it is significant to know how books are arranged on the shelves. This is enhanced by descriptions in the next section.

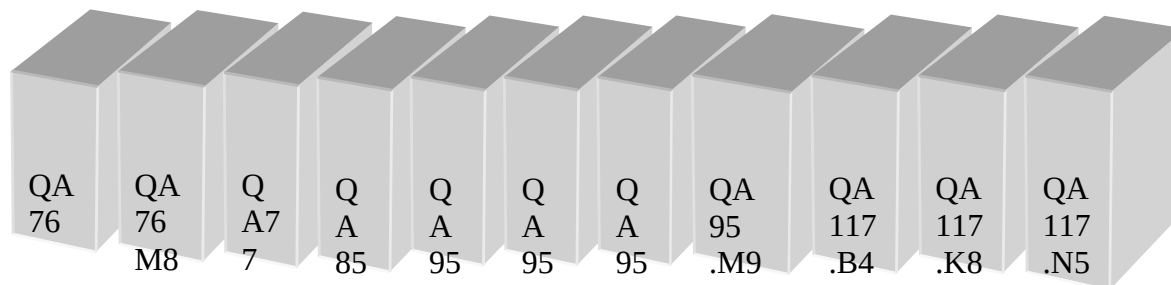
4.4.6 Arrangement of Library Materials

Library materials are physically arranged according to a particular classification scheme by using call numbers. The arrangement is from left to right and top to bottom of each section of the shelf. Materials with the same class number are further sub- arranged by

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authors' surnames in alphabetical order. The call number is therefore used for the arrangement and retrieval of library materials on and out of the shelves. Such arrangement is shown in the figure below.

Classified sequence



Question: Why do some library users spend more time than others looking for a particular book in the library?

From the figure above, it is easy to see the arrangement in the sequence, which has been made easier by use of call number. A call number is a symbol combining the class number and an author mark. The author mark is usually the initial letter of the authors' surname, preceded by a dot and then followed by one or two numerals.

For example,

}
QA

76 is a call number.

.M8

For full identification of the book, the title may be given. Hence,

QA

76 *Computers and Informatics in developing countries.* **.M8**

4.5 INFORMATION SOURCES AND SERVICES

4.5.1 Types of Information Services

Sources of information are mainly in form of a reference book. As it was stated earlier, this is a specific kind of publication that is particularly consulted for items of information rather than reading it throughout. Examples are dictionaries for certain vocabularies and directories for specific addresses and telephone numbers.

4.5.2 Categories of Reference Books

They fall into two categories:

i) General Reference Books

Generally, references deal with knowledge or topics of general interests. They are often consulted for specific information. The process is similar to browsing for specific information in a computer. Such books are used in the library, not for borrowing. Examples: Encyclopedias, Atlas etc.

ii) Specialist Reference Books

Publications in this category are devoted to a specific subject area such as Mathematics, Computer science, Environment, Geography, and History. They are useful for students studying specific area.

Examples are:

- 1) Dictionary of Mathematics
- 2) English Dictionary
- 3) Encyclopaedia of Science and Technology

4.5.3 Types of Reference and Information Sources

i) Reference Sources

Reference Sources differ in form and content. The main ones are as follows

a) Dictionaries

These provide information about words, spelling, and pronunciation as they are used. The words are alphabetically arranged.

b) Encyclopedia

These contain information on almost all subjects. They give a broad overview of a subject, historical information and bibliographical references for further reading. Encyclopedias comprise one volume or multi-volume sets with subjects arranged alphabetically. They also have index either at the end of each volume or at the last volume of the set.

c) Handbooks

Handbooks provide summarized facts and statistics on a subject in essay form by experts. The information may include biography, trends and terminology of a specific subject. A handbook is arranged in a brief and easy to consult format.

ii) Manuals

a) Yearbook

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This briefly reviews events of the past of a subject. A yearbook is a book of the year presenting events of the immediate past year through brief articles, tables and charts.

b) Almanacs

These give facts, statistics and basic information on all subjects. They are useful sources for population, business, sports and agricultural statistics. They can also give lists of elected officials of state and local governments. It therefore consists of important events that occurred in the year.

c) Biographies

They provide brief information about the lives of individual people.

d) Directories

They include list of names and addresses of people, organisations and institutions.

e) Manuals

This is similar to a handbook but serves more as a guide. It can give instructions on how to do something

f) Atlases

These contain maps, plates, and charts with or without explanatory notes.

f) Gazetters

These provide names of places found on maps

h) Bibliographies

These provide list of works and other sources of information.

i) Indexes

This is a reference source, which indicate where information can be found. In a book, it shows a page or pages on which certain information is found. Other forms of indexes include library catalogues, indexes to literature in periodicals and that to literature appearing in collections.

(3) Locating Reference Sources

In a library, reference sources are separated for other books that can be borrowed. They are however, given class and call numbers like other books and can be located using the classification scheme in use and the prefix “Ref”. Reference books are normally kept in areas relevant to collections of a particular subject.

ACTIVITY 4(D)



Explain where you would look for the following type of information?

- a) The formula of finding the volume of a sphere
- b) The location of Cape Verde
- c) List of elected MPs in England in 2001
- d) Life history of President Moi

4.5.4 Library Services

Besides references, there are sources of information to supplement them. These are in form of people and organizations. In order to utilize them, contact with library staff may be necessary. The following are therefore the services that can be available in library. i) Lending

Many books are borrowed for a specific period of time. Books borrowed for use outside the library are issued to users at a circulation section, formally referred to as issue desk.

ii) Reservation

Books, which are not available on the shelves having been borrowed by other users, can be reserved on request. Users are notified to collect such books when they are available.

iii) Photocopying

Photocopying facilities are usually available in the library at a cost.

iv) Interlibrary loan (ILL)

Books and journal articles that are unavailable in a particular library can be borrowed for users from other libraries on inter-library loan (ILL). An ILL is a transaction in which a library borrows material from another library on behalf of the users upon request. Since the library cannot acquire all materials, ILL is a means of securing materials which users need but are only available in another library.

ILL is based on the wider concept of library cooperation in which libraries agree to share resources. Each library has a borrowing and lending practices. Students are encouraged to request for ILL service when they fail to find materials in the library.

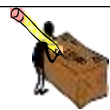
4.5.5 Guides and Assistance to Library Users

The following are important guides, which you can use to locate information in the library, notice boards, shelf guides, catalogues, enquiry desks and reading list. Use them in order to use the library appropriately. You may also find it useful to follow rules and

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regulations of your library. Once registered a member of a library, one needs to observe all rules and regulations that govern the use of the library. It is important to know them.

ACTIVITY 4(E)



Explain how you would access a book from the library at Leeds University (England) while at Kenyatta University, without using digital library.

4.6 REFERENCING TECHNIQUES AND SEARCH STRATEGY

Introduction

You have learnt various sources of information and services offered in the library. This section will explain how such services can be utilized in doing academic research and how the sources are acknowledged after using them.

4.6.1 Doing a Library Search

Students in institutions of higher learning are required to write long essays. These are called term papers or research papers. It is important that you know how to find sources of information that may be available in the library on your chosen topic. Knowing what has been published on the subject would help you to focus on the task at hand. Such knowledge reveals what might have been undertaken by other scholars on the same area. It is not significant for one to embark on a research topic that either someone else has fully tackled or you are unable to locate useful sources of information. This section will help you to do that in order to avoid plagiarism. Plagiarism is the usage of other peoples' ideas without acknowledging them.

a) What is a research paper?

This is a form of written communication of some length based on information gathered from identified sources. Research increases your knowledge and understanding of an area of your study. A research paper is often organised and developed by your own thinking, planning and judgement. It lends authority on your ideas and opinions. Preparing a research paper is a demanding task. You will therefore need to develop an understanding of how to search for relevant sources of your information. b) The search strategy

Here, search strategy is defined as the plan adopted for answering questions pertaining to a particular inquiry. More specifically, it is the strategic search statement used to answer an enquiry. As a university student, you will find it useful to understand library organisation well. This will help you to look for necessary information sources and use them without difficulties.

c) How to develop search strategy

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The main steps involved in developing a strategy for writing a research paper are:

- i) Selecting and focusing on the topic that
 - Interests you and you wish to learn more about it
 - Has a wide range of information sources
 - Has some significance and can objectively be presented.
- (ii) Then ask yourself: Is the topic chosen too broad and unmanageable?
- (iii) Follow this by identifying and defining terms related to your topic. The identified terms will you to create key words, which can be used as search terms in the subject catalogue.
- (iv) Consequently:
 - Determine which sources to use that your library has: books, periodicals, reference materials.
 - Know how these sources of information are organized. For example, are there special collections in the area of your research? How can they be accessed and used?
 - The type of information you may be seeking for governs decision making on how to use it.

(d) Guidelines for selecting sources of information

Suitable references for your research paper must first be identified. Then:

- (i) Know the experts in your topic area by checking if the book or article cited is included in any of the sources consulted and other various bibliographies.
- (ii) Check the relevance of a source to the task at hand.
- (iii) Check if the author of the book or article is an expert on the subject (written several body and articles whose name is cited in various sources). In other words is the author of the source an authority in the area?
- (iv) Check the value of useful source:
 - Update of the information contained in the source • Number of revisions that the source has undergone.
 - Authoritativeness.
- (v) When you identify an article that is useful at a glance, in what type of journal does it appear?

Note: Some popular magazines may not carry article with substantive content on academic subjects. So look out for the main journal in your subject area.

- (vi) If a book looks useful, what audience does it target?

Note:

- Materials for younger level readers may be unsuitable for research paper unless your focus is on that level.
- Highly technical books may also be inappropriate.

- (vii) Record details of each identified source you may develop your own system of doing this.
 - Cards can be used to
 - Make notes for each identified source of information in the library.
 - Know location of the sources within the library. This should also include; authors, titles, publisher, call number and location marks (Ref, Afr. TP etc).
 - Use such information (on the cards) for compiling final bibliography.

Once these strategies are fulfilled and ready with your notes, you can now use the information to write the essay. You will need to appropriately cite sources to make your essay academic. The main styles of citation and referencing techniques are explained in the next section.

4.6.2 Some Available Styles of Referencing Techniques

In developing academic argumentation in your essay, you will need to use short form of references, referred to as *in text citation*. These can be either in form of paraphrasing or foot notes. The following are such example.

(a) In-text citation

This is mainly used to support your ideas.

- (i) Study by Wekesa (1995:86) shows that ---
- (ii) Wekesa (1995:1) identifies ----
- (iii) Recent study (Thuo, 1985) indicates that ---

After the essay is completed, a bibliography is compiled using the sources cited.

(b) Foot note

These are often explanation notes given either at the bottom of the page on which they appear or listed at the end of a chapter as endnotes (List of references). They indicate the authority cited or some technical terms that need explanation. They are useful in authenticating writer's statements give guidance for further reading. They also indicate what was directly quoted by the writer in amplifying some points in the discussion of the central theme.

Abbreviation for footnotes.

- (i) *ibid* (Latin *ibidem*) means in the same place e.g if you cited Mugenda and Mugenda (1999) on p61 with information relating to intervening variables, and then cite the same source on P117, the citation can be shortened as *ibid* P. 117, instead of writing the full reference Mugenda , O.M and Mugenda A.G. Research methods: Quantitative and qualitative approaches. Nairobi; Acts Press, 1999.
- (ii) *Op. cit.* This means the work cited. It is used when the same work is cited but other references came between them e.g. Mugenda and Mugenda op.cit P.168.
- (iii) *Loc. cit:* This is used to mean "same place" cited and follows a citation that is exactly the same as the one before and appearing on the same page.

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In citing a reference, the following parts should be included; author, title of the book (source) or article, city of publication, the publishers and the date of publication. The organization of these parts and the publications involved depend on the type of the style of referencing techniques being used. Thus: 1. American Psychology Association (APA)

The following is the arrangement for various courses

Book: start – author (surname) their initials, year of publication (in brackets); fullstop; title (underlined or in bold etc); fullstop; city; colon; publishers..

For Example:

Mugenda, M.O. and Mugenda, A.G. (1999). Research methods: quantitative and qualitative methods. Nairobi. Acts press

(a) Edited book. Start author of the chapter (surname first then other initials); year (in brackets); fullstop; title of the chapter (in " ") fullstop; in name of the editor (s) (surname first, other initials; title of the book (underlined or in bold). Pages (in brackets and indicated with pp), fullstop; city, colon; publisher.

For Example

Coulson, A.A. (1980). The role of the primary head”. In Bush T. G. Katter R. Goodey J. .Riches C (eds) Approached to school management. (pp.274-292). London: Harper Row Ltd.

© Journal article. Start: author of the article (surname, initials) year (in brackets); fullstop. Title of the article (in “”) title of the journal (underlines) volume (underlined); issue number (in brackets) common pages (without pp)

For example

Anderson, L.W. (1987). The classroom environment study; teaching for learning: Comparative education review 31 (1), 73 –75.

d) Newspaper/magazine start: author of article (surname, initials) year (in brackets); fullstops; title of the article (in “ “); fullstop title of the Newspaper/magazine (underlined); pages (indicated by PP)

For example

Green, L. (2001). “A New Broom for Bristol. Nonesuch, PP 28 – 29

2. Harvard style

Arrangements in this style are as follows

A) Books: Start – author (surname first, then initial); year; fullstop; title (underlined or in bold); city; colons; publisher; fullstop.

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Example: Mugenda, O. M. and Abel G. Mugenda 1999. Research methods: quantitative and qualitative approaches. Nairobi: Acts press.

b) Editors books Start-author if the chapter (surname first); title of the chapter (no “ ”); full stop; in: names of editors (surname first); title of the book (underlined); city: ; publisher; comma; pages

Example. Coulson, A. A. (1980. The role of the primary head. In Bush, T. et al (eds) Approaches to school management. London: Harper and Row Ltd 274 –292

c) Journal. Start – author of the article (surname first, other names) year; title of the article; Title of the journal (underlined or in bold; volume; issue number; pages

Example :–Anderson, L. W. 1987. The classroom enrolment study: teaching for learning. Comparative Education Review 31, 1, 73-75

d) Newspaper/magazine: Start – author of article (surname first, then initials; year.; articles title; title of the newspaper/magazine (underlined or in bold); page, ; column number.

Example. Green, L. 2001. A new broom for Bristol. Nonesuch 28, col. 1

3. The British standard style

Bibliographic details in this style are arranged as follows;

(a) Book: Start, author’s name (surname first initials) title (underlined or in bold): city: Publisher year of publication.

Example

Mugenda, O. M. and Abel G. Mugenda Research methods : quantitative and qualitative approaches. Nairobi: Acts Press.

(b) Edited books: Start: author of the chapter (surname first initials) articles title.; In: ; Editors (s) (surname , initiate) Title of the book (underlined or in bold) city, publisher, year of publication, pages

Example: Coulson, A.A. The role of the primary management. In: Bush, T. et al (eds) Approaches to school management. London; Harper and Row Publishers, 1980, (pp.274 – 292)

c) Journal: Start: author of the article (surname, Initials); year (in brackets); full stop. Title of the article (in “ ”) title of the Journal (underlined); volume (underlined); issue number (in Brackets); common pages

For example

Anderson, L W. (1987). “The classroom environment study: teaching for learning” comparative education. Review 31 (1), 73 –75.

d) Newspaper/magazine: Start: author of article (surname first, then initials); article title. ; title of the newspaper/magazine (underlined or in bold) ; year of publication, ; pages, ; column number For example

Green, L (2001). “A new broom for Brustol. Nonesuch, 2001, 28, col 1

4. The University of Chicago Press style

Bibliographic details in this style are arranged as follows

- a) Book: start – author’s name (surname first, initials), title of the book (Underlined or in bold); city; publisher,; year of publication.

Example: Mugenda, O. M. and Abel G. Mugenda Research Methods: Quantitative and qualitative approaches. Nairobi: Acts Press.

- (b) Edited Book: Start – author of the chapter (surname then initials); title of the chapter (In quotes).; editor(s) name (surname first, initials); In title of the book (underlined or in bold).; city;; Publisher, ; year of publication: ; pages

Example:

Coulson, A. A. “The role of the primary head” In: Bush, T. (eds) Approaches to school management. London: Harper and Row Ltd, 1980: 274-292

- c) Journal: start – author of the article (surname, then initials); articles title (in “ “); title of the journal (underlined) or in bold); volume number ; issue number (in brackets); year of publication: ; pages

Example

Anderson, L W “The classroom environment study: teaching for learning”. Comparative Education Review 31(1) 1987: 73 –75.

- g) Newspaper/magazine – start – author of the article (surname first, then initials); article title (in “ “); Title of the newspaper/magazine (underlined or in bold); Year: ; Page, ; column.

Example

Green, L “A new broom for Bristol Nonesuch 2001:28 Col 1

(5) Modern language association style

Bibliographic details in this style are arranged as follows

- a) Book: start – author (surname, other names); title of the book (underlines); city: ; publisher, ‘ year of publication.

Example

Mugenda, Olive M. and Abel G. Mugenda Research Methods : Quantitative and qualitative approaches. Nairobi: Acts press.

- b) Edited book: Start – author of the chapter (surname first, other names); title of the chapter (in quotes.) In; Editors (surname first, other names) title of the book (underlined or boldened) city publisher, year of publication; pages

Example

Coulson, A. A. “The role of the primary head. In Bush, T. Et al (eds) Approaches to school Management. London. Harper and Row Ltd, 274-292.

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- c) Journal: start- author of the article (surname first, other names) articles title in quotes); article's title (in quotes); Title of the journal (underlined or in bold); Volume number; issue number (in brackets); year of publication; pages. Example

Anderson, L.W "The classroom environment study: teaching for learning".
Comparative Education Review 31(1) 1987, 73 – 75.

- d) Newspaper/magazine: author of the article (surname, other name); title of the article (in “ ”); title of the newspaper/magazine (underlined or in bold); year of publication; page,; column number.

Example

Green L “A new broom for Bristol.” Nonesuch 2001, 28, Col 1.

Note

1. Always start with the author's surname (last name)
2. All titles are underlined or in bold
3. Choose and use one style only. Do not mix them

4.6.3 Writing A Bibliography

It is always important to acknowledge the sources of information that you have used in preparing and writing your essay. This is done by compiling a bibliography of such resources.

What is a bibliography?

Bibliography is a list of resources, cited or not cited, that have been used in writing an essay. The format is as follows:

1. It is always given at the end of the essay
2. The sources are arranged in alphabetical order.
3. The list should contain relevant sources that have been read when preparing for writing the essay, whether cited or not.
4. If an author has published more than one book in the same year, differentiate them with letters, for example Eshiwani (1983a), Eshiwani (1983b). Such dates are also similarly cited in the text.
5. If in the alphabetic order, the name of an author follows one another use a dash often the first, instead of writing full name. For example

Eshiwani (1983a) -----

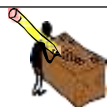
(1983b) -----

----- (1980) -----

----- (1979)

6. The function should be strictly followed as appropriate. They depend on referencing style that has been selected.

ACTIVITY 4(F)



Prepare a bibliography for selected ten (10) reference sources that you have read in one of your Kenyatta University Open Learning Courses.

4.7 FURTHER READING



American Psychology Association (19--). Publication Manual Of The American Psychology Association (3rd edn). Washington D. C.: American Psychology Association.

Bristol University (2001). Nonesuch. Bristol: Bristol University.

Bush, T. et al (eds) (1980). Approaches to School Management. London: Harpes and Row Publishers.

Gates, J. K. (1994). Guide To The Use Of Library And Information Sources (7th edn). New York: McGraw-Hill.

Harrison, C. T. (1990). The Basics Of Librarianship (3rd edn). London: Library Association.

Kenya, Ministry of Health (1994). Basic Health Libraries: An Information Management Handbook. Nairobi: African Medical Research Foundation

Kenyatta University, Communication Skills Department (1993). Communication Skills Teaching Manual. Nairobi: Up

Mugenda, O. M. and Mugenda, A. G. (1999). Research Methods: Quantitative And Qualitative Approaches. Nairobi: Acts Press.

Rukangu, S. M. (1998). A Diagrammatic Summary Of The Main Academic Referencing Techniques. Nairobi: Up

Turwer, C. (1987). Organizing Information. London: Clive Bingley.

5.0 LESSON 5: STUDY SKILLS

5.1 INTRODUCTION

Reading has often been thought to be the same as studying; as a result of this wrong thinking, studying as a skill has often been overlooked. It is sometimes seen as a preparation for examinations rather than a skill to help you improve learning as a whole. Since reading has been discussed in an earlier unit in this module, this unit will deal specifically with techniques for understanding the content of the subjects for which you have enrolled.

The aim of this topic is to help you to think about and plan the way you should study and where necessary to improve your studying, revision and examination techniques.

5.2 STUDYING

Studying has many definitions but our aim is to understand what it involves.

It can be said to be the process that you use to understand, remember and recall information. When studying, you should select information from the reading that you want to learn. You should organise this information so that it can be learned efficiently and easily. This information should then be committed to memory so that it can be recalled when it is needed.

From what has been said about studying, it is obvious that it requires the use of your mind which means that you have to apply some mental effort. It is therefore important to acquire skills that will enable you to study effectively.

In the following, section certain items that are important in assisting you to study will be mentioned.

OBJECTIVES



By the end of this lesson, you should be able to do the following:

1. To acquire what you need for your study (the modules that you have enrolled for) before the learning begins.
2. To budget for the items that you need so that you do not spend money on unnecessary items.
3. To keep your notes in order by using files and exercise books.

5.3 REQUIREMENTS FOR YOUR STUDY (TOOLS OF TRADE)

It is very important to acquire what you need for your various subjects that you will be studying at the Kenyatta University Institute of Open Learning. It is like being a farmer who knows what he needs before setting off to the farms. Equipment like a “jembe” a “panga” and a slasher are very important to him for preparing the land before he sows the seed. Unlike the farmer, your equipment will be very different. You are a student and your tools are what will be needed for effective learning.

ACTIVITY 5(A)



In order of importance, list all the items that you require before you begin your studies. You may have listed items like writing paper, pens, a ruler, a geometrical set and textbooks among other items. What you have listed will be very important and some may be asked for depending on your subject like a dissecting kit for zoology and most of the textbooks. You may be required to buy these as soon as you are enrolled for those courses.

5.3.1 Budgeting

When you go into a shop, you usually have a list of items that you wish to buy and the estimated cost of each item. You then ensure that you buy the correct amount of items within your budget. Just like the other shopping that you do, you should budget for your writing paper, textbooks and so on and also buy the correct amount. It will be very futile to buy ten reams of foolscap paper for a semester of thirteen weeks! Do not also buy a stethoscope if you will not be studying medicine. Remember that it is your money and so use it wisely!

5.4 KEEPING OF WRITTEN NOTES

Note keeping is certainly not a new thing to you. By now you must have realised that to learn your notes effectively, you must first ensure that they are well organized for

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easy access. Two options for keeping notes are available to you as a student. You can use note books or foolscap. Should you go for the latter, ensure that you develop a habit of filing your information on a daily basis. It is important to keep these notes in an organised manner so that you can use them when you require them. If your notes are in disorder such that you cannot find them at the right time, they are as good as lost. There are two ways of keeping your notes in an organised manner and they will be discussed below.

5.4.1 Use Files

If you choose to use foolscap paper for writing your notes, you will definitely need files. There are many types of files in the market that you can choose from. Box, spring, clip, and pocket files are available in many bookshops or from an ordinary retail shop in your area. Your intended use and the amount of money will dictate what type of files you will buy. There are two ways in which you can use files.

1. You can choose to have a file for each subject that you are studying. So for five subjects (modules) you will need five files. Each file should have your name, the module name and its code among other details. For example, communication skills, UCU-100. A subject usually has various units and so you can have divisions in the file to indicate the different units. For example, theory of communication, study skills, reading skills and so on. The separation should be done by using pieces of strong paper like manilla paper which must be labelled with the name of the unit and which can be clearly seen. It is advisable to stick it at the edge of the foolscap paper so that it juts out with the name of the unit for easy access.
2. You can file three or more modules in one file like a box file since it is very big. In this way, you will separate the different modules with file dividers like the ones that are described above. This type of filing will have very many sub-divisions and you should label each sub-division very clearly.

As you write notes, you should write the following at the top of each paper; name of the module, topic, date, number of page and the source can be from the module write-up or other sources like books or articles. For example:

Communication Skills: Study Skills 2/6/2002, P.1, module notes. This will make filing very easy and there will be no mix-up of notes.

5.4.2 Use Of Exercise Books

Notes can also be written in exercise books. It is practical to choose large size exercise books with many pages. Supposing you decide to choose a 96 page exercise book, how many will you use for each module: Remember that they are for writing notes and doing other work like assignments.

Large A4 size exercise books of 200 pages can be used for two modules. One module can take up the first half of the exercise book and the second module can use the second half. Even with exercise books, you will need a file in which you will file hand-outs (if

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any) and your assignments. You also need to file some photocopied material. So you will need file dividers to separate the various sub-divisions.

You are free to choose the most convenient way of keeping your notes from the ways that have been described above.

ACTIVITY 5(B)



1(a) According to the subjects that you are studying, work out the number of files or exercise books that you require.

1(b) When using files, on what principle would you base the sub-divisions?

5.5 PLANNING A STUDY SCHEDULE

It is your responsibility to develop your mind and to plan for all the work you will be doing during your studying. You have your academic studies, may be a family, a farm or some other business to take care of. You will therefore need a lot of discipline to study. Your 24 hour day will seem to be insufficient when all you have on your hands is considered. So being able to plan for the day, week and even for a year will be very necessary.

If you do not plan your time, you are likely to:

- Use too much time on one task leaving out no time or very little time for the other tasks.
- Work less efficiently because of lack of commitment.
- Do easy tasks first postponing difficult ones.

When planning your study schedule, it is important to consider the time available for the work and the amount to be done.

OBJECTIVES

By the end of this lesson, you should be able to do the following:

1. To make a study time-table that will make it possible for you to do your work efficiently.
2. To choose a good place for studying
3. To know which time to study effectively

4. To learn and choose which are the best methods for studying and to form a study group.

5.5.1 A Study Time-Table

After making the commitment to work hard, it becomes necessary to make studying part of your daily routine. When drawing the study time table the following should be considered.

- a. The number of hours for reading the units in each module. You should note that these could be hours that you would spend sitting in a lecture hall before a lecturer.
- b. Self-study hours
- c. Discussion hours. This is possible if you know of someone or people with who you are doing the same module (s) and who live near your area.
- d. Time for a break like walking around and meal times.
- e. Leisure/recreation hours. These hours should be used in any light activity that you fill is relaxing. It can be used to attend to light duties at home or in the work place. You may think of reading a newspaper, playing a game ,or watching television.

It may look like you will need a 48 hour day to meet your study demands as well as demands from family and work. Do not despair because it is possible to study and fulfill all other duties and even indulge in some leisure as long as you become a good manager of your own time. Remember we all have equal time in a day. It is what we do with it that makes the difference.

The time for private study should be assigned different tasks depending on the work to be done. For example, do not write on your time table, Geography essay, 8 hours. Break down the essay into various tasks like,

- Looking for books and other sources
- Reading and making notes
- Reviewing notes
- Discussing with a colleague (if possible)
- Writing drafts
- Writing a final copy.

5.5.2 A Place of Study

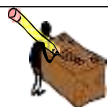
In case you are not in an institution whereby it is easy to find a place for studying, you should make an effort to find a convenient place for studying. This could mean going to a school near where you live or any other place in the evenings or during the week-ends to study.

It is important to get together what you need for studying. Apart from pens and books, you will need a table, a chair and good lighting at night. Other factors like the following also have to be considered.

- A quiet place with enough air and light
- A table that is clear of distractions like a newspaper, a radio or your children's exercise books. You may be tempted to check how they are doing in school.
- Do not sit on a sofa set or a bed. You could easily go to sleep.
- If you decide to read in the sitting room, face the wall and not the people.
- Avoid sitting near a window since you can see what is happening outside and get distracted.

It may be a good idea to discuss your added university responsibilities with friends and family so that they realise that they also must make adjustments. You should set aside a period of time each day for the purpose of doing your academic work.

ACTIVITY 5(C)



1. Do you have responsibilities that can interfere with studying? If so, how do you intend to deal with this problem?
2. Have you discussed your added academic responsibilities with family members and friends? If so, what was their reaction?
3. Are there specific hours each day that you can devote to studying? Have you recorded these hours on your study time table? How many hours do you study each week?
4. Do you have a specific place to study that is free from distractions? If so, where do you intend to study?

5.5.3. Time of Study

It is not possible to prescribe the best time to study since it varies from person to person. Some study early in the morning like from 2.00 a.m to 6 a.m. while others prefer to study late at night like from 8.00 p.m to 11.00 p.m.

Whatever time you study you should pay attention to the following:

- Be physically fit. When you are unwell, you cannot concentrate on your studies.
- Eat and sleep properly
- Take a break for 15 – 20 minutes to relax in the course of your studying.
- Change activity when boredom sets in. When you are most fresh study those subjects that do not interest you, and when you are trying to fight boredom, study those subjects that most interest you. You should train yourself to concentrate on material whether or not it is interesting. It is a matter of attitude and self- discipline.

5.5.4 Method of Study

For effective studying, you should carry out the following activities.

- Read and make study notes. You can summarise your module notes or notes from books. Charts or other aids can be used to help you remember what you learned quickly.
- Think as you study and do not just read. Make an effort to recall and remember information.
- You should try to understand and not memorize all that you learn. However, certain information must be memorised like names, dates and formulae. These cannot be worked out by a process of association or elimination.
- Read widely. Read as many sources as possible on the same subject.
- Draw relationships between the content that you read. For example some content that you learn in physics can also be made use of in mathematics like formulae. Drawing from background information is also helpful since it will be in your long term memory.
- Discuss with fellow students or with your academic advisors.
- You should make yourself think all the time by asking questions and so on. Studying is a silent activity but an active one.

ACTIVITY 5(D)



From your subject area, list those things that you need to memorise and those that you need to understand.

5.5.6 Study or Discussion Groups

They are very useful when it comes to studying. It should be possible for you to find from your center two or more students enrolled in the same module(s) as yourself with whom you can form a study group.

What are the advantages of a study group?

- You are responsible for your own work and so you can plan your work as you wish.
- You are able to make use of limited resources like textbooks by sharing within the group.
- You can learn from one another as well as sort out any queries about the coursework. Ideas can also be exchanged before writing your assignments.
- You can revise for examinations since you can cover more work as a group than as an individual.

Tips about organising a study group.

- You should take turns in organising for your work. This is having a rotational chairperson. It is possible that you may keep this group for three years.
- All the meetings should be regular for easy remembering. If you arrange to have them every Saturday, let it be so.
- Always plan ahead before you leave. Agree on what you should do when you meet the next time.

Discussion groups will only work if every member is committed. Participation must be 100%. Remember that not all activities are suitable for a discussion group. Reading and note-taking cannot be done in a group.

5.6 REPARING FOR AND TAKING EXAMINATIONS

Examinations are one way of effectively measuring how well you have studied a certain subject or course. Success or failure in your work is determined almost entirely by your ability to perform well in your examinations. Examinations do cause anxiety. A little anxiety is good because it makes you read but a lot of anxiety is bad since it can incapacitate you. You will be surprised to know that though we do not like examinations, they have some benefits.

- You are forced to revise previous work.
- You work in large units than you normally do.
- You take wider views and perceive the relationships of the parts to the whole.

5.6.1 Preparation

Final success in your examination depends on laying a foundation at the outset. Make it your practice to do all the assignments, to take good notes and to review your work consistently. The more familiar you are with the course content, the easier it is to revise for tests and examinations.

You need to develop a method of revising to avoid the loss of information from your store of memory. This is like developing good habits of revision, a flexible approach to revising your notes and interpreting examination questions.

5.6.2 Steps in Revising for an Examination

- Be aware of what is expected of you by the examiner. You will need to get the course outlines of your modules. It is important that you cover 100% of the content. Do not go into an examination room with gaps in your knowledge or understanding.
- Look for past examination papers of the past three to four years to see what grounds are covered and to also find out the following
 - The number of papers that you are expected to sit for.
 - The number of questions you are expected to answer
 - How long the paper will be
 - The choice of questions to be answered. For example if they are equally weighted or not.
- Make revision aids from your notes for quick reading.

5.6.3 What Do You Review?

- Lecture notes
- Study notes
- Main ideas and important details that you may have underlined or highlighted in your textbooks.
- Relevant past examination papers
-

5.6.4 How Do You Review?

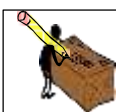
- Use short periods to review the content like two hours and take a break when necessary.
- Re-read to a minimum. Going through your notes six times over will not be very useful.
- Plan an answer to a question by writing down the main points to a question or more
- Test yourself by answering some past paper questions in the time that is required by the examiner.

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A revision timetable is very essential and when making it, you should have the following factors in mind.

- The subject's length and difficulty.
- The total number of examinations.
- Your own strengths and weaknesses in the subjects that you are studying. You will then assign more time to revising the difficult subjects.

ACTIVITY 5(E)



Make a detailed day-to-day and wee-to-week study timetable for the modules that you are taking.

5.7 TAKING EXAMINATIONS

On receiving the question paper, do the following before you start answering the questions.

- Check to find out that you have received the correct question paper. There could be a mix-up when packing. Do inform your invigilator if it is not the correct question paper.
- Write your registration number on the answer booklet, the module code and title.
- Read the instructions very carefully. These will inform you on how the questions are to be answered and where, like on separate graph papers.
- Read through all the questions.
- Select the questions you will wish to answer. As you do so, note the directive verbs like discuss, analyse, compare and so on.
- Allocate your time to the following
 - a) Planning your answer
 - b) Writing the answer
 - c) Checking the answer for grammatical correctness or any omitted ideas.

You should do the following if you want to do well in examinations.

- Answer any compulsory questions. They usually deal with the core of the course and failure to answer them could mean failure in your examinations.
- Answer the right number of questions, not more than you are asked to or fewer.
- Answer each question as fully as you can within the available time for each question.

What you should do in the course of the examinations.

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- Read the question that you are answering and keep referring to it as you write. This will enable you to do all the sections.
- Write legibly
- Before you hand in the paper make sure that you have written your registration number and have answered all the required questions.
- Try not to leave the examination room before the end. You need all the time that is given to the paper.
- Do not discuss the paper on leaving the examination room. Relax until it is time to revise for the next paper.

5.7.1 Tips On Tackling Different Types Of Examination Questions

Essay questions

- You should write an outline for your answer. These are specific points that you will tackle. Write them in some logical order. The outline will help you to know how much time you will have for each point. The more the points, the less time for each point.
- Get right to the answer without repeating the question
- Express your answers in clear language. Examiners do not want to know how wide your vocabulary is especially those long words.
- Do not give personal opinions unless asked for.
- Edit your work.

Multiple choice questions

Some examiners deliberately trick you in multiple choice tests. So you must read each question very carefully. Words like “never”, “always” or some technical word that is similar to what you know can be very confusing.

- You should try to eliminate one or two obviously incorrect answers which will leave you to decide among the remaining ones.
- Sometimes, a later item will give you a clue as to the correct answer to an earlier one and vice versa.

Problem solving

These are tests that mainly consist of problems like those in physics and mathematics which need solving.

- You should approach them just like you approach your homework/assignments. In examinations, you should remember to solve them at a faster speed.
- You should revise your answers so that you can correct careless mistakes.

5.8 SUMMARY



This lesson has discussed key aspects that relate to effective study. These include planning a programme of study and keeping of notes in some systematic order. Planning a study schedule which includes preparation of a study time-table has been examined. Place of study, time and method of study and discussion groups have also been discussed. Aspects of preparation and taking of examinations have also been dealt with. These are steps in revising, what and how to review, taking examinations and what you should do during the examinations.

5.9 FURTHER READING



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Pirozzi, Richard C. College textbook reading and study skills. Chicago: Holt, Rinehart

and Winston Inc., 1982. **6: ACADEMIC ESSAY WRITING SKILLS**

6.0 L

6.1 INTRODUCTION

The purpose of this lecture is to introduce you to the key concepts that define the kind of essays you are required to write as a university student pursuing undergraduate studies. The unit begins by examining the key features or characteristics of academic essays. Because writing or producing an academic essay involves a number of key stages or processes, the unit will provide explanations of these processes as well as some activities to enable you master the key techniques and processes.

Writing is a very practical skill. Although we may tell you everything there is to know about writing, for you to know how to write well, you have to put to practice (in fact a lot of practice) whatever new ideas this unit tells you about. Remember that your success as a student will be assessed mainly through your writing. Ensure, therefore,

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that you train yourself to write the kind of essays that will win you good grades. Consider what Thornton (1980:17) has said; “the mastery of the writing system is the greatest gift that schools [universities] can bestow on those who pass through them. This is so “because it is upon students ability to write that judgements with the most important consequences are made.”

Your quality as a student will be measured mainly through the type of writing you produce. Writing will be used to assess you because it can tell your tutors whether or not you have thought well enough while preparing your essay task. You must therefore train yourself to write well for it is only through the way you write that others will know whether you are a clear or poor thinker. This is because writing at university essay is fundamentally a thinking process. For example, it involves such stages as interpreting a topic, discriminating between relevant and irrelevant ideas, differentiating key ideas from less important ones, evaluating the views of other writers, arguing logically, selecting relevant evidence, drawing valid conclusions from given data as well as summarising and paraphrasing among others. Remember also that your writing is also a mirror of your reading habits. People who write well are usually people who also read well for a variety of purposes. In assessing your writing, therefore, your reading skills are also being assessed.

OBJECTIVES



By the end of this lesson you should be able to:

1. List the main characteristics of academic writing.
2. Differentiate between academic and non-academic writing.
4. Identify both closed and open-ended essay topics.
5. Determine the content and structure from an essay topic.
6. Explain meaning of the following directive words: Discuss, describe, critically analyse, justify, argue for and against.

6.2 FEATURES OF ACADEMIC WRITING

There are different kinds of writings produced by different writers in different situations. Consider for example, a letter to a friend, memoranda, newspapers, novels, business writing and the like. Each type of writing is different from others in relation to the style of language used, the vocabulary purpose and the reader it is meant for. Academic writing is writing among university professors and their students. It is serious writing. It is guided by certain standard conventions or rules such that you do not have the freedom to present your ideas in any way you like or are comfortable with. Study the following features:

- It avoids such personal constructions as I, you, he, me, she, him.

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- It relies more on the use of the passive voice as opposed to the active one e.g. it would prefer: “The frog was dissected and it was found out that...” instead of “I dissected the frog...” or “The results are astounding..” instead of “I am astounded by the results”.
- It avoids contractions such as can’t, don’t, won’t, shouldn’t, etc
- It avoids clichés, slang, colloquialism, that is such expressions like ”The poor folks” “the kids”, “kudos to our dear country”, ”too many idlers” .
- It uses a special jargon or vocabulary instead of a general vocabulary.
- It acknowledges the ideas of others. This means that when you write, you are expected to use not just ideas from your thinking but also from books and journals. You have to indicate (acknowledge) the ideas or views got from what others have written. In academic writing, you will find statements like the following: “Sifuna (1990) has argued...”, or “Kenyatta (1961) points out that...” In so doing as a writer, you are acknowledging that a given idea comes not from your head but from a book written by another writer.
- The main purpose of academic writing is to argue (argumentation) and to explain (exposition). This means that it deals less with entertaining or just the mere presentation of facts. It tries instead to interpret the facts, to evaluate them as well as to apply them where necessary.
- It is aimed basically at other academics i.e. university lecturer and students. The academic audience is usually regarded as skeptical i.e. one that is hard to convince or one that does not accept other peoples ideas without seriously considering their intellectual value. It means then as a writer for this audience you have to take extra caution in order to present information in a manner that will win approval from your audience. In trying to convince a reader in your argument, you must try hard to put together logically the most important, complete and accurate facts, reasons etc that will leave him/her believing in your point of view.
- It is a lengthy as well as creative process involving various stages such as focusing a topic, gathering ideas, determining a structure , drawing a outlines, drafting, revising, editing and proof-reading.

ACTIVITY 6(A)



1. Read the following two paragraphs.
2. Using points from section 6.2 above, decide which one is academic and which is not.
3. Attempt rewriting paragraph 2 in passive voice and without any informal words and expressions.

Paragraph 1

Prewitt (1972) has noted that the existence of a prefect system is based on satisfying the authorities rather than a student constituency. School heads often used to the bureaucratic nature of the school structure, however, seem to perceive nothing undemocratic in the selection of prefects, since they argue that such selection is based on merit. Moreover, the students themselves seem to see such a system as fair and sensible, because in a study in Nigeria, they expressed overwhelming approval for existence of prefects and monitors. (Harber, 1989: 83)

Paragraph 2

The paper women seemed to gaze back at me, enticing or mocking, yet even in my adolescent dither, I was troubled by the phony stare, for I knew this was not true exchange for looks. Those mascaed eyes were not fixed on me but on a camera. What the models felt as they posed I could only guess – perhaps the boredom of any numbskill job, perhaps the weight of dollar bills, perhaps the smelting lights of fame, perhaps a twingle of the power that launched a thousand ships.

6.2.1 The Writing Process

The writing process can be described as a process of discovering ideas, developing and organizing them. The process is not simple, and neither does it take place in a linear manner. Good writing takes a lot of time and practice.

No two people write in the same way. Some outline ideas before writing about them, some do not. Some write their introduction first, while others at the end. Some revise their essay as they go along, some do it at a later point. Not all writers follow the same method, and different writers use different methods in writing for different purposes. As a student writer you must discover the approach that works best on any particular occasion. Still, most experienced writers have reported that to produce a good piece of writing, you have to pass through certain stages while writing an essay. These are:

1. Exploring and planning: discovering a topic, focusing, finding support details and organizing ideas.
2. Drafting: getting ideas and supporting details down on paper in rough form.
3. Revising: rethinking and rewriting drafts to improve content, focus and structure.
4. Editing and proof reading: checking for effective word choice and sentence structure, correct grammar, spelling, punctuation and mechanics.

NOTE: To produce good academic writing, you are expected to go through these same stages that all good writers go through.

6.3 UNDERSTANDING ESSAY TOPICS

Although as a student you may be given freedom to think of your own topic to write an essay on, many times you will find that your course instructor will ask you to write on a topic or topics he/she has made for you.

The ability to understand your essay topic well is an important step in all types of essay writing. If you are going to write a good essay, you must begin by taking a careful look at the topic in order to make correct judgement as to what exactly your instructor requires of you.

To do this, you need to be aware that essay topics are usually presented in two forms: open-ended essay topics or closed essay topics.

6.3.1 Open-Ended Topics

Such topics give a lot of freedom to you as a writer. How you respond to the topic is usually a matter of your own creativity and imagination. Consider the following.

1. What is happiness?
2. Man is what he eats. Discuss.
3. It is better to live a single life than to marry.
4. Man's chief business on earth is to communicate. Discuss.
5. You don't need a college degree today to be successful in life. Discuss.
6. Thinking being; unique being. Discuss

6.3.2 Closed Topics.

Closed topics are more specific and often set a limit as to what you should say or do as a writer. Look at the following:

1. Identify three major environmental problems facing Kenya today. Explain their nature. Say which is the most serious and why.
2. Define the term communication. Using any relevant model of communication, identify and explain the essential elements of the communication process.
3. Discuss the role of women in environmental conservation in one of the provinces of Kenya.

6.3.2 Parts of an Essay Topic

In order to decide accurately the kind of ideas, information, explanations, or facts to include in your essay, you need to try to identify the following from your topic be it is a closed or open-ended one:

- Directive/instructional verbs.
- Content words.
- Scope or functional words.

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a) Directive/instructional verbs.

The following words are used by your tutors quite often in setting essay topics for assignments or for examinations. For you to be able to interpret your question properly, you will need to know what each word means. The main purpose of a directive verb is to direct you on exactly what to do with the subject content. In case you are not sure, you may use a dictionary to get an idea of the meaning about such words. You can also seek help from your course tutor. These include:

formulate, hypothesize, suggest, perform, transform, discuss, describe, explain, critically analyse, draw, identify, define, state, justify, what, argue for or against, tabulate, label, compute, interpret, compare and contrast, outline, list, write, account for, rearrange, substitute, dispute, deduce, present, comment, summarize, paraphrase, apply, answer, give reasons, agree or disagree, etc.

b) Content words.

Content words or phrases in an essay topic tell you the specific subject matter you are expected to handle in answering the topic. Look at the list below. You may want to think about different content words especially from your subject area. Look at the following:

Environmental problems, effective reading, literacy, pollution, motivation, women, drug abuse, communication process, economic issues, computer programming, leisure, exercising, education in Kenya, selling, culture, school drop out, management, educational goals, child development, formal education, socialization process, etc.

c) Functional words.

These include such words as the following: three, four, in 1000 words, facing, before, after, among, causes, between, examples, with, during, in four sentences, important, greatest impact, effects, etc.

e.g. In an essay of not more than 1,000 words.....

Using examples from

Between 1800 and 1960.....

ACTIVITY 6(B)



Read the essay topics below and for each identify the directive verbs, content and functional words and phrases.

1. Cycling is becoming a favourite sport among young adolescents. Discuss.
2. What is a robot?
3. Describe the process of photosynthesis.
4. Write an essay arguing for or against abortion.
5. Explain what you understand by the expression “communication is the lifeblood of an organization.”

6.4 PLANNING YOUR ESSAY.

Planning is a very important stage in writing an academic essay. Planning is a mental activity and must be differentiated from a 'plan' or 'outline' which is a physical or written product of the mental activity. As a process, planning begins when you start understanding or analysing your essay topic. It continues as you gather information and make notes, as you formulate a tentative structure in which you will organise your ideas and does not end until you complete the essay. Planning integrates very closely with all your writing activities. It does not progress lineally but is a rather recursive process – meaning that as a writer you are not a slave to your plan. You produce a plan to use as a tool for writing and you can change or alter sections of it as you continue to discover more information about your subject.

There is not one way of planning. At the centre of each planning process, however, is the need to look for a suitable structure in which to order or organise information. How you order information will be determined by the material itself as well as your purpose in writing the essay. Whereas some essay topics have an inherent structure, others will require that you seriously consider which is the best mode of presenting your ideas. In writing an essay that describes a process, you cannot, for example impose your own order. In an argument, however, you will order your points of view and other evidence in the manner you feel will be most convincing to the reader. For example, you may choose order of most to least important or least important to most important. You could use a different order altogether.

To arrive at a useful plan, consider the following planning strategies:

1. Analyse your essay topic.
2. Go over all the information you have collected i.e your notes.
3. Identify all key points.
4. Think about an approximate sequence for your material.
5. Draw up a tentative plan or outline.

6.4.1 Gathering Information

Once you have a topic, you will need things to say about it. This supporting material can include facts, ideas, examples, observations, memories, views from experts, stories, etc. If you are writing on a familiar topic, supporting material may come from your own head. To retrieve it from your head you use a technique known as brainstorming. It is rare however, that you will be able to produce a forceful, vivid, interesting academic essay by drawing upon only what is in your head. When your topic is unfamiliar, brainstorming will not work, but whatever the topic, familiar or unfamiliar, talking with people knowledgeable on the topic can also produce useful results.

Brainstorm on two of the following topics by putting down on paper all ideas from your head on each of the topics. Do not bother to arrange them in any order as you do so. After the exercise, look at the ideas your brain has yielded and evaluate it for relevance and group them according to their relationships.

Child-rearing patterns in your community, healthy living habits, drug abuse, distant learning, culture shock, poverty, the goal of a university education, role of communication in an organization, effective leadership, to marry or not to marry, national development.

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NOTE: Do not worry if your brainstorming notes look chaotic or if some points look out of place. Jot them down as they come to mind. One of the things you will notice is that brainstorming alone cannot yield adequate information for a scholarly essay.

6.4.2 Reading and Note-Making

As you have already noted from the unit on Reading Skills, reading is the best way for you to grapple with an unfamiliar topic. Your course tutors will assist you by providing you with a reading or reference list. But even if such help was not there, a visit to a local library or resource centre should yield promising references for you to investigate. Look through each to find and jot down any information that looks useful, either as direct quotations or in your own words (paraphrasing or summarizing). Whenever you use a direct quotation or you paraphrase or summarize material from a reference book, you must give proper credit to the source. This means that your notes and finally the essay should show that the ideas you have used are not from your head only but also from other persons. For example you could write: Tartson (1991: 20) says: “Robots will have far greater benefits for humanity in future than we are presently willing to accept.”

In this case, Tartson is the surname of the writer of the material you are reading, 1991 the date the material was published, and 20 the page you are getting the quotation from. More on how to include other writer’s views in your notes and essay is tackled later in section 6.10 of this unit. While reading library material you should ensure that you keep a clear record of what you have read in your notes and the exact source of your information—that is books, journals, theses and the pages you got the ideas you want to use from.

This is because in grading your writing assignment, your lecturer needs evidence or proof that you have actually researched your essay topic by using library sources and other published material in your own writing. Remember, we have said at the beginning that academic writing is associated with other authors. It is not just what you think about the topic that matters. In becoming a university scholar you are joining a community of other writers many of who are experts in the field you are only beginning to study. You will not produce good papers or essays if you ignore the fact that reading will help you take into account what others have already written about the field/topic. Unit three has a more detailed explanation on reading and note- making.

6.4.3 A Model Formal Outline

I. Introduction: Thesis Statement.

Despite the misgivings of some people, robots will probably have beneficial effects on industry and its work force.

II. Body:

A. History of robots

1. Origin of term “robot”
2. Launchers of the robot revolution
3. First purchasers of robots
4. Present status of robots

B. Fears concerning the impact of robots

1. financial fears
2. corporate management fears
3. unemployment fears

C. Benefits resulting from robots

1. Past benefits of automation
2. The first automobile assembly line
3. The Hargreaves spinning jenny

D. Robots and the employment threat

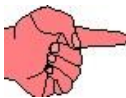
1. Reassignment of displaced workers to other jobs.
2. Retraining of displaced workers
 - a) By industry
 - b) By colleges
 - c) By government and other organizations

III. Conclusion:

Robots will have more advantages than disadvantages in future.

Adopted from: Reinking and Hart. Strategies for Successful Writing. Pp. 346-349.

NOTE



The important thing to note is that Plans or outlines will differ from writer to writer although at the centre of each planning activity is the need to structure ideas for the essay in a suitable, logical manner—a manner that suits your purpose, the needs of your audience and the nature of the material.

ACTIVITY 6(C)



Using a topic of interest in which you feel you have a substantial amount of knowledge, prepare a formal outline similar to the one outlined here.

6.5 DEVELOPING EFFECTIVE PARAGRAPHS

Like many other essays, an academic essay has three parts – an introduction, a body and a conclusion. In order to create strong, clear and logically structured paragraphs you are advised to first prepare an outline or plan which will serve as a tool of ordering ideas in your essay. We have already stressed that there are many ways of planning and therefore the model outline presented here is only one of the many ways through which planning can be approached.

The important thing to note is that plans or outlines will differ from writer to writer although at the centre each planning activity is the need to structure ideas for the essay in a suitable, logical manner.

Introduction

The introduction plays a very important role in your academic essay. It is usually written mainly in order to announce to your reader your main intention or purpose for writing the essay. Because we have already agreed that academic essays are written in order to inform or to persuade an audience, your purpose should be so clear that your reader should be able to use that introduction to decide whether or not you have something striking for him/her to read. The most important sentence in the introduction is the thesis statement or your statement of intention. It is this sentence more than any other that determines what you will say in the rest of the essay. It is usually referred to as the controlling sentence of the entire essay. It is usually the last sentence in the introduction and it establishes a smooth link between the introduction and the body.

Use your introductory paragraph to make your subject sound or feel attractive to your reader. A good beginning is one that coaxes or tries to win the reader's attention. You can also use your introduction to provide necessary background knowledge of the subject, that is, if you judge that your reader can benefit from such background information.

ACTIVITY 6(D)



Study the following three introductory paragraphs and identify in each case the one sentence you feel is being used by the writer to state his/her purpose for the essay (the thesis statement). You will notice that whereas some introductions have an

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explicit or clear thesis, in others, the thesis is implied or is not stated directly. This means that the writer's purpose is not stated by any one specific sentence, but rather the writer wants you to deduce his purpose from several sentences working together.

Introductory Paragraph 1.

Even if they grow up in the same neighbourhood, on the same block, or in the same house, girls and boys grow up in different worlds of words. Others talk to them differently and expect and accept different ways of talking from them. Most important, children learn how to talk, how to have conversations, not only from their parents but from their peers. Research of anthropologists and communication experts now indicates that there is a world of difference between the language used by boys and girls.

Question: Identify the purpose of the writer in this introduction.

Introductory Paragraph 2.

A great majority of our nine million college students are not in school because they want to be or because they want to learn. They are there because it has become the thing to do or because college is a pleasant place to be; because it is the only way they can get parents or taxpayers to support them without working at a job they do not like; because mother wanted them to go; or some other reason entirely irrelevant to the course of studies for which college is supposedly organized.

Question: Do you think the writer here intends to write an argumentative or informative essay?

Introductory Paragraph 3.

Many people tend to take the skill of listening for granted hence forgetting the vital role played by effective listening for the success of any social interaction. Many of us have not received any kind of training in effective listening. It is no wonder that we do not listen as well as we ought to (Bormann and Bormann, 1988). Of the four communication skills—speaking, reading, writing—listening is often ignored by educators although it is “the fundamental process through which we initiate and maintain relationships and it is the fundamental process through which we take in information” (Gamble and Gamble 1993:31). In this essay the critical role that listening plays in enhancing communicative effectiveness is explored.

NOTE:

May be you have noted that except perhaps for the last paragraph which uses a clearly stated thesis statement to announce the writer's purpose, the others do not. In the other 2 introductions you have to deduce what the purpose of the writer is. To do this, you might have to rely not just on one sentence but on all sentences in the introduction.

Although in a particular essay you may have both argumentative and informative purposes, you may present ideas in such a way that one type is clearly seen to be more important than the other. In that case, if arguing a given case is your main purpose, you may then use informative writing as way of achieving the major aim.

ACTIVITY 6(E)



Suppose you were asked to write two essays on drug abuse – one to be read by adolescent youths whom you feel need information on the dangers of drug abuse and the other to be read by a group of parents who need information in order to rehabilitate their teenage children who are already drug addicts. On your own or with the help of another person write two introductory paragraphs (about 10 lines each) using a thesis statement in each case to state your separate intentions to suite the two types of readers. You will need to do some little research in order to come up with strong introductions. Try to make the introductions as striking as possible.

6.5.2 The Body Paragraphs

The body of an essay is made up of several paragraphs. Each paragraph attempts to advance or develop in more details the main idea that was stated or implied in the introduction. Each paragraph is able to do this by methods that are determined by the overall purpose for writing that essay. There are various patterns used by writers to develop the idea in a given paragraph. These include the following: definition, description, classification, cause and effect, comparison and contrast, explaining or exposition, argument, process analysis, narrative, exemplification and allegory. Although you may use a given type as your dominant mode of expanding your paragraph, in some cases, writers also combine more than one mode or pattern of development in the same paragraph. For instance, in the same paragraph you can define a given term and in the same paragraph give various examples of it or its causes. This means that to argue or explain effectively these patterns should be made use of at various points in the essay.

6.5.3 What Is A Paragraph?

A paragraph is a group of sentences developing a main idea. A well-written paragraph in an informative or argumentative essay should be:

- Unified: All sentences clearly relate to the main idea of the paragraph.
- Coherent: All sentences should be logically connected to each other.
- Fully developed: Paragraph should have sufficient details to explain or expand the point made in the paragraph – examples, facts, reasons, statistics, quotations, definitions, and so on.

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- Appropriately Organized: Paragraphs should have a clear logical pattern of organization such as chronological, spatial, emphatic, narrative, cause-effect, comparison-contrast etc.

Examples: Two Supporting Paragraphs

Para.1.

Probably the most difficult problem for people living alone is dealing with feelings of loneliness. First, they have to understand the feeling. Some people confuse being alone with feeling lonely. They need to remember that unhappily married people can feel very lonely with spouses, and anyone can suffer from loneliness in a room crowded with friends. Second, people living alone have to fight any tendencies to get depressed. Depression can lead to much unhappiness, including compulsive behaviour like overeating or spending too much money. Third, people living alone need to get involved in useful and pleasurable activities, such as volunteering their services to help others.

Para. 2.

Throughout history we humans have tried to manipulate the food chain so as to provide ever-greater outputs of energy .On the one hand, we have tried, by whatever means we could employ, to rid our fields of harmful birds, insects and rodents, and our animals of diseases and parasites. On the other, we have constantly striven to produce healthier and more productive strains of plants and animals. Often these attempts have been spectacularly successful. Sometimes, though, the results have proved disastrous, as with the insecticide DDT.

ACTIVITY 6(F)



Study the two paragraphs above and for each identify the main concern of the writer and the different methods employed to explain the main idea of each paragraph.

6.5.4 The Topic Sentence

A good topic sentence does two things.

- a) It tells the reader what you are going to discuss in the paragraph (the topic).
- b) It establishes control so that you do not wander away from the basic purpose of your paragraph (controlling idea).

In the examples below, the underlined part is the topic and the one in bold tells you what aspect of the topic the paragraph will focus on (controlling idea).

Colour filters **offer three advantages in black-and- white photography**

Overeating, which is becoming an attractive pastime for the affluent of the world has several dangerous effects.

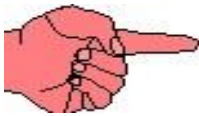
ACTIVITY 6(G)



Look at the paragraph on DDT above and identify its topic sentence. Then read the topic sentences below and for each identify the part representing the topic and the one that establishes control or provides the focus for the topic.

- a) One shortcoming that we all share, is that we do not save enough money.
- b) Many women in developing countries are dying of preventable maternal complications.
- c) Working through grief can be seen in terms of tasks.
- d) Food has many benefits for growing children.

NOTE:



Not every paragraph begins with a topic sentence. Some professional writers do not always use topic sentences because they have the skill to carry the reader along without explicit signals. **6.5.5 Using facts As and a student Opinions.** writer, however you are required to use topic sentences so that your essay will stay organized.

Among the different types of details used to develop paragraphs are facts and opinions. A fact has to do with anything you say that is an actuality, a certainty or truth. It represents an act, deed, or event that can be easily verified especially physically. An opinion on the other hand has to do more with a feeling, a view, or a belief. Opinions have more to do with the mind and although they may require to be proved as true or false, they are quite different from facts.

ACTIVITY 6(H)



Look at the sentences below. Which represents facts and which are opinions?

- 1. Women in Kenya have made more contribution to development than we have been able to measure
- 2. The climatic conditions in the world have been more extreme in the recent years.
- 3. All cultures have greeting rituals.
- 4. That law was amended in 1992.
- 5. The town is located 1,760 meters above sea level.
- 6. Kotler (1994) has outlined the major aspects of the programme.
- 7. Extreme hot temperatures may continue for the next few months.
- 8. About 1,600,000 students visit that website every four months.
- 9. The AIDS scourge is probably the greatest scourge facing modern man.

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10. 342 students opted to remain non-residents.
11. They will probably die of old age.
12. Three out of every ten citizens in this country are vegetarians.
13. Flamingoes at Lake Nakuru form the biggest tourist attraction in Kenya.
14. Unless a cure is found soon, they could all die in months.

6.5.6 Transitional Paragraphs And Sentences

If you are writing a lengthy essay, you may need a short paragraph or sentence that indicates a shift from one group of ideas to another. Transitional paragraphs play three major functions:

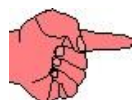
- Summarize the ideas that have so far been discussed;
- Repeat the key ideas of the essay;
- Indicate what new ideas may follow.

Example

Although the three factors we have examined above – illiteracy, disease and malnutrition help explain the magnitude of the problems facing children in difficult circumstances—there is a fourth problem that seems to override all the rest. War now poses the greatest challenges of all.

NOTE

1.



A transition paragraph stands on its own, separating as it were, two different sections of the essay; while a transition sentence is usually part of the paragraph that is concluding or introducing a new section.

6.5.7 The Concluding Paragraph

The purpose of a conclusion is to bring the essay “home to rest” by signalling that the discussion has been completed. Not all papers require a separate conclusion. Narratives or descriptions stop when the writer finishes the story. The academic essay, however, does benefit from a conclusion that echoes the main point one more time. To be effective, a conclusion must logically and stylistically connect with what the paper is all about. A long complex essay may end with a summary of key points, but shorter papers can end using any of the methods that follow:

- Restating the thesis statement i.e. repeating in different wording the purpose that was at first mentioned in the introduction.

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- A question.
- A relevant quotation.
- A clever humorous ending.
- A prediction.
- A warning.
- A summary of key points.
- An ironic twist or interesting observation.

Example of a conclusion

As seen from the above discussion, practicing good listening skills is difficult. The important lesson however, is that if we are going to initiate and maintain good human relationships with others, we have no choice but to strive and improve our listening habits.

6.6 Creating Coherence In Your Paragraphs

Your paragraphs should be written in such a manner that all sentences logically and grammatically relate to one another. We define coherence as that quality of the essay that makes it ‘hang’ together or feel connected. One creates coherence in an essay by using three main devices – namely use of reference words or pronouns, repetition of key words or their synonyms and transition signals. In the following excerpt, coherence is achieved by relying on all three devices.

Example (This text is adapted from Bint, et al 1990).

It is not possible to pinpoint exactly which jobs are lost because of automation and which losses are due to some other factor such as depressed economy. It is only possible to look at historical trends and the potential of information technology itself. These suggest that jobs will be lost because of automation.

Firstly, automated machinery can take over many jobs which are done by people. Such machines do not get tired, go on strike, or require breaks. They make fewer mistakes than humans and often do the job better. They can be programmed rather than expensively retrained should the job they do become obsolete. Furthermore, they obviously do not have to be paid although initial costs and maintenance costs are high.

However, it must also be remembered they do not recycle money in the economy. Robots do not buy cars. In this respect, productivity increases due to automation are quite different from those in the past. Previously, improved productivity meant more pay for workers and more jobs created. This increased the market for goods so that increased productivity could be absorbed. Introducing robots does not, in itself, increase the demand for products produced by these robots.

Some of the devices used in the text are underlined. They can be categorized as follows:

Pronouns or reference words: these, this, they, those

Repeated key words and their synonyms: automation, jobs, robots, productivity, machinery

Transition signals : firstly, however, furthermore, previously, in this respect.

6.6.1 Transitional Signals

These signals play one major function. They indicate to your reader the direction of your thoughts or ideas. Look at some of the major groups:

- 1) Those that add information: in addition, furthermore, moreover, therefore, on top of that, apart from, besides, another;
- 2) Those that show contrast: but, however, on the other hand, although, yet;
- 3) Those that show cause and effect: in effect, resulted, caused, lead to, arises from, becomes;
- 4) Those that list or serialize ideas: firstly, secondly, first, second, the first, another, the next.

ACTIVITY 6(I)



1. To each of the groups of transition signals 1-4, add your own transitions that have not been included.
2. To which group above do the following transition signals belong?

In spite of, as a result, despite, all in all, consequently, whereas, nonetheless, finally, in other words.

6.7 WRITING ARGUMENT

As a writing strategy, argument involves the presentation of reasoning, evidence and logic in order to convince a reader to accept a particular point of view on a debatable topic. Generally, there are two types of argument—informal and formal. Informal arguments take place mainly in day-to-day conversation in which case the speaker attempts to convince the listener to change his/her mind at whatever cost including using exaggeration and untruths to achieve that aim. This type of argument is called persuasion.

It is important to differentiate between persuasion and formal argument. In this type of argument, there is a requirement that one uses facts as well as authoritative opinion and logic to support a point of view. Whereas persuasion is an attempt to get other people to agree with you at any cost, formal argument tries to appeal to the readers faculties of reasoning. To succeed, it parades carefully selected evidence which may be in form of startling statistics, research findings, or views of experts in the field in which we are writing. Whereas argument is really a search for truth, persuasion is an attempt at agreement in whatever manner possible.

The following are three basic argumentative strategies that writers can use:

- a) Making a claim or proposition (the statement of opinion that is presented for debate) e.g Most teenagers joining university today do so for reasons completely different than those for which universities have been established.

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- b) Using supporting reasons and evidence (facts, cases, statistics, examples, authorities, anecdotes, scenarios, etc).
- c) Handling counterarguments (involves acknowledging, accommodating and meeting opposing points of view).

6.7.1 Qualify Your Claim

If as a writer you are very certain that your case is so strong that readers will accept your argument easily, you will need to state your position emphatically and unconditionally. But if on the other hand you have a feeling that your judgment or conclusion might be challenged, then you will be wise to qualify your claim. Readers tend to take seriously a claim that is qualified.

Note the following words/phrases that can be used in qualifying claims:

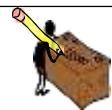
It appears, might be	considering
Probably	one may assume
It seems	it is not clear
Likely/ very likely	I think
Apparently	Tentatively
To a certain extent	a possible interpretation
May be	I am not certain
Possibly	I do not wish to regard
Perhaps	
Presumably	

6.7.2 The Proposition

The first step in preparing a convincing argument is to structure a clear, limited proposition, your argumentative topic sentence. There are two kinds of propositions: In one, the writer attempts to convince the reader that something is or is not a fact, while the other attempts to convince the reader to take a particular action.

- In order to generate an effective proposition first of all make sure that the point you intend to make is really debatable. Student writers often err by presenting for argumentation just a simple fact that is a matter of fact. E.g. how many deaths occurred due to road accidents in Kenya in 1996? Another mistake is where you choose for argument issues that are simply a matter of personal taste. E.g. “Watching soccer is more interesting than dancing.”
- A strong proposition must be absolutely clear. This means that it is free of any ambiguous words that could allow for two or more meanings. In other words, it should not be open to misinterpretation.
- Thirdly, your proposition should deal with only a single point – this should be especially so at the level of the paragraph. The length of a paragraph is only adequate for the argument of one point.
- Lastly, if there are words that need definition in your proposition, define them immediately in the next sentence. An argument cannot achieve its aim unless both you and the reader are clear about the meaning you attach to the terms you are using.

ACTIVITY 6(J)



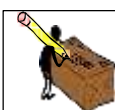
Decide which of the following statements qualifies as a good proposition.

1. The most detestable quality about the average American citizen is his/her individualism.
2. Women have far better communication skills than their male counterparts.
3. Married women are happier than single ones.
4. Africans have a far poorer concept for time than Americans.
5. She would prefer living in Australia to Britain.
6. He has risen to a top management position due to his commitment, hard work and creativity.
7. What is time management?

6.7.3 Checklist For Argument

1. Do I have a strong clear statement in the introduction that announces to the reader my proposition (the view I intend to put forth for debate)?
2. Have I paraded in a logical manner sufficient evidence to support my point of view? (facts, statistics, definitions, examples, anecdotes and so on)
3. Have I handled objections wisely – by acknowledging the other side that opposes my view and attempting to show why it is weaker than the side I am proposing?
4. Are there words that I need to define before getting into the argument?
5. Have I acknowledged sources of information for any ideas that are not from my own head?
6. Have I used words appropriately – the right word for the intended meaning?
7. Have I avoided distorting information – by presenting information accurately and completely?
8. Have I used the right tone of voice e.g. a light warm tone for a light-hearted subject and serious tone for subjects such as war, ethnicity, etc?
9. Have I avoided oversimplifying a complex issue by suggesting rather simple answers to resolve the issue?.

ACTIVITY 6(K)



Use the above checklist to evaluate an essay you or someone else has written. What do you consider to be the main strong points of the essay?

6.8 QUOTING, SUMMARIZING AND PARAPHRASING

We have already said earlier on that to write a good academic essay, you ought to rely substantially on ideas from library references which may cover items such as books, professional journals, (e.g. Journal of Child Development) or periodicals (Daily Nation, The Lawyer, Newsweek etc) as well as unpublished theses by Masters and Doctoral students.

Three ways of incorporating ideas from library sources into your essay are by: quoting, summarizing or paraphrasing. Let us look at each of these in turn:

6.8.1 QUOTING

There are generally two ways of quoting depending on whether what you want to quote is a short quote (up to three typed or handwritten lines) or it is a long quote (more than 3 typed or handwritten lines).

Example: Short quote.

D'Angero (1980:63) in expressing the complexity involved in organizing ideas in an essay states that "the labour of composition begins when you have to put separate threads of thought into the loom."

Example: Long quote.

Organization of ideas in an essay often presents itself as one of several types of problems that face students in their efforts to produce effective writing. Clunchy and Ballard (1992:1) have this to say about it to the student writer:

Certainly you will with time and experience become proficient in such skills as interpreting topics □ □ □ mastering academic language and presentation. But the central intellectual struggle to shape your thoughts into a coherent whole will remain as demanding as it seemed when you were faced with your first assignment.

NOTE:

1. You never quote any author without a reason. In both quotes, the authors D'Angelo, Ballard and Clunchy are quoted to prove a certain point.
2. A short quote is enclosed by quotation marks while a long quote is often blocked or indented as shown.
3. You never quote anything that is common knowledge information.
4. In using the views of exclusive authorities to support your point of view, it may benefit your argument if you add his/her credentials. e.g. Cohen Phillips, America's leading cancer specialist and senior researcher at South Cleveland Medical Centre has shown that...

5. The statement or phrase just before the quote serves to explain to the reader the actual reason for the quotation. You will need to think of using words or phrases such as the following just before a quote:

Borgen (1982:26) states...

Borgen (1982:49) notes...

Sifuna (1990:110) argues...

Kirk (1989:92) defines...

In summarizing the effects of war on children Njogu (1996: 6) laments (or observes, concludes, agrees, reports, emphasizes, refutes, describes, etc.)

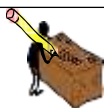
The Ellipsis

You notice that somewhere on the long quote above, there are three spaced dots (...). This is referred to as a skip or ellipsis. In making a long quote you may decide to leave out some portion of the text – a word, a clause, a whole sentence or two. If you do, then use ellipsis to indicate that some words have been omitted from the original text. Ensure all the time that the part before and after the ellipsis link logically and grammatically with each other. Use three ellipsis (...) within a sentence to indicate that you have omitted material from the original source. Use four ellipsis (....) to indicate any omission between two sentences. The first dot indicates the full stop at the end of the first sentence quoted, and three ellipsis points follow.

6.8.2 Summarizing

A summary is a brief statement, in your own words, of the main ideas in a passage that you are reading. When writing your essay, you will need to express in several instances what other writers have said in your own words. When you summarize, your focus usually is on the main points in which you may not include supporting details such as examples, facts, reasons, and so on. Your main goal in summarizing a passage is to give your reader an accurate idea of the content and the emphasis of the original. In writing a summary, you do not just copy statements from the original and put them together. Rather, you try to restate the author's ideas in your own words and to combine information and group main ideas in a way that shows the relationships between them. In summarizing you also try to make a general concluding statement that w

ACTIVITY 6(L)



Attempt a summary of the following paragraph. Use only one sentence and your own words as much as possible to emphasize the main idea the author has made in the paragraph.

Even if they work for a company with a well-established harassment policy, many women still keep their mouths shut. They do not want to be seen as troublemakers – and they worry about the long-term consequences of complaining. “The individual who makes the complaint is immediately subjected to scrutiny, criticism and blame,” says

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Carolyn Chalmers, a Minneapolis lawyer who handles harassment cases. “You are immediately put on the defensive to justify your existence and credibility.” It is a rather risk-and-reward equation that for many women adds up to one big zero.

6.8.3 Paraphrasing

It is similar to summarizing. Both involve restating someone else’s idea in your own words. But whereas summary is a condensed or shortened version of the original, a paraphrase is a complete restatement, including all of the writer’s main idea and key supporting details. In general, a paraphrase is as long or longer than the original. Your main goal in paraphrasing a passage is to give your reader an accurate idea of the meaning, tone, and emphasis of the original.

Guidelines to Paraphrasing

1. Read the original and make sure you fully understand it.
2. Try to restate (without looking at the original) the general meaning.
3. Reread the original one more time to ensure you have included all important information in the same tone.
4. Revise the paraphrase as needed. (Add transitional words or phrases so it flows smoothly).

Alternative

1. Go through each sentence of the original word by word substituting a synonym whenever possible.
2. Change the word order of each sentence.
3. Revise the paraphrase as needed.

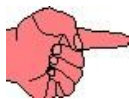
ACTIVITY 6(M)



Paraphrase in your own words the following paragraph:

The greatest challenge in making sense of non-verbal signals comes when one is interacting with people from different cultures where different interpretations could easily be derived from similar signals (Argyle, 1988). In today’s world, opportunities for interacting with people from other cultures are increasing every day. Communicating with people from different countries stands greater chances of success if listeners and speakers approach people from different cultures with greater sensitivity. There are differences in cultures – the way people greet each other, in their status symbols, in the way emotions are expressed, in their regard to time and in their negotiating procedures. They also differ in the meanings they attach to body movements, gestures, dress, colours and others.

NOTE:



Summarizing or paraphrasing another writer's idea does not necessarily make it yours. So do not forget to indicate the source of the idea according to standard procedures or avoiding plagiarism.

6.9 THE BIBLIOGRAPHY OR REFERENCE LIST

You may tend to think that your essay ends with your concluding paragraph but this is not the case. After your conclusion follows the “Bibliography” or “Reference List”. This is the list of all materials you used in writing the essay and includes both published and unpublished documents such as books, popular periodicals, seminar papers, academic journals and the like. You include source of ideas from which you have quoted as well as summarized and paraphrased. There are many styles of presenting your bibliography (see library skills unit in this module). A typical list looks like the “Further Reading” list provided at the end of every unit in this module. Always ensure that your Bibliography is written on its own page with surnames of authors arranged in alphabetical order. The list is important in that it shows not only that you read in order to write your essay , but also how widely you read. It also indicates that you are credible enough to provide access to the information you used for any one interested to check if need be.

6.10. SUMMARY



This unit has presented to you information that will help enhance your understanding of writing as a communication skill for learning at the university level. The key features of academic writing have been examined. Because writing forms the primary communication skill through which your performance as a student will be assessed, the unit has illuminated those features and stages of writing that you have to come to terms with in order to write the kind of papers that will appeal to your assessors. Although skills in use of correct grammar and vocabulary are admired by your university examiners, they will be more pleased to see that you can interpret essay topics well; you can gather especially through reading the relevant material for a given topic; you can structure the ideas in your essay logically as well and demonstrate you can think clearly through the arguments you write. The unit has discussed the main parts of the essay and how they can be written in order to achieve a strong essay. The need to write well developed paragraphs was emphasized.

On balance, we again reiterate what we said earlier – that good writing is achieved through practice and that this unit as a whole is concerned with illuminating some of the areas in which practice should be concentrated. These include practice in writing effective paragraphs (both argumentative and informative) as well as documenting sources of information through the techniques of quoting, summarizing and paraphrasing (a detailed coverage is found in the unit on Library Skills).

The writing unit as a whole has tried to explain how good writing can be arrived at by engaging the students in the important stages of writing through various activities while at the same time providing various examples of what is involved (model topic sentences, supporting paragraphs and so on).

Writing is a skill that is gained through much practice and patience and this unit advises students to develop a deep interest in improving the one single most important skill that will guarantee as well as determine their success in university learning.

Lastly, we want to note that writing is not an independent skill but it is related to the other skills covered in this module. You will need in particular to pay careful attention to the information contained in the Library Skills Unit. The unit has covered very extensively how different documentation techniques are applied in preparing essays for your academic assessment. Reading is often seen as the other side of writing. To write well, you need to be able to read efficiently and effectively.

FURTHER READING



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